Cawnpore, Kipling and Charivari

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Abstract

摘要

English original

This paper examines the politics of commemoration in colonial India, taking as its focal point the notorious massacres of Europeans at Cawnpore (and subsequent reprisals) during the 1857 rebellion. Arguing for a conceptual understanding of mourning and extreme grief as collectivising, political acts, I trace the discontinuities of remembrance at the site of the Cawnpore bibighar, showing how the informal texts of ‘mobilised mourning’ produced there in the immediate aftermath of the massacre, were overwritten in the post-Mutiny period by official monuments and state-commemorative projects. Drawing on Giorgio Agamben’s work on sovereignty and political exception, I suggest that these changing commemorative practices reveal the organising logic of colonial sovereignty, as it negotiates the transition from the exceptional (potentially scandalous) violence of counter-insurgency to the sovereign paradigm of the rule of law. I go on to argue that at Cawnpore colonial state-sovereignty found its inverse figure in the popular sovereignty of Anglo-Indian charivari or ‘rough music’ which sanctioned extreme violence against suspected rebels, and could not easily be contained by the juridical framework of colonial government. I conclude by examining Kipling’s largely ignored journalism on the 1857 rebellion, which engages meta-historically with the process of public commemoration. While noting Kipling’s ambivalence towards official remembrance in these texts, I trace the persistence of ‘mournful’ tropes of social exclusion and ritualised banning (as charivari) in his fictional work, and argue that these represent a different order of ‘Mutiny’ commemoration enshrined in the popular historical consciousness of the Anglo-Indian community.

中文译文

本文考察英属印度的纪念政治，以 1857 年起义期间坎普尔发生的臭名昭著的欧洲人屠杀（以及随后展开的报复）为核心。本文将哀悼和极度悲痛在概念上理解为能够形成集体并具有政治性的行为，追踪坎普尔比比加尔（bibighar）遗址上记忆方式的断裂，说明大屠杀发生后立即在当地形成的“动员式哀悼”的非正式文本，如何在“兵变”后的时期被官方纪念碑和国家纪念工程所覆盖。借助乔治·阿甘本关于主权和政治例外的研究，我认为，这些不断变化的纪念实践揭示了殖民主权的组织逻辑：它必须处理从反叛乱行动中例外性的、可能引发丑闻的暴力，向以法治为基础的主权范式过渡的问题。我进一步指出，在坎普尔，殖民国家主权的反面形态，是英印殖民社群的民间主权——charivari，即“rough music”（喧闹惩罚仪式）。这种民间主权认可对被怀疑为叛乱者的人实施极端暴力，也难以被殖民政府的司法框架所约束。最后，我考察吉卜林关于 1857 年起义、长期以来受到忽视的新闻写作。这些文本从元历史层面介入公共纪念的过程。尽管吉卜林对官方纪念抱有矛盾态度，但我追踪了其小说中社会排斥与仪式化放逐这些“哀悼性”母题（以 charivari 形式）的延续，并认为它们代表了另一种“兵变”纪念方式，深植于英印殖民社群的大众历史意识之中。

Cawnpore, Kipling and Charivari: The 1857 Rebellion and Colonial Commemoration

坎普尔、吉卜林与 Charivari：1857 年起义与殖民纪念

English original

On the seventeenth of July 1857, exhausted soldiers led by the aged, evangelical Brigadier-General, Henry Havelock, finally arrived in the town of Cawnpore (Kanpur)1. Havelock’s makeshift army, made up of the 78th Highlander regiment, Sikh troops and men from the 1st Madras fusiliers, was part of a mobile counter-insurgency force hastily assembled at Allahabad to try to quell the popular rebellion - the so-called ‘Mutiny’ - that had broken out in the East India Company’s armies two months earlier. The

1857 uprising, which had been catalysed by the Company's annexation of Oudh and fears of forced religious conversion amongst high-caste soldiers, had quickly overwhelmed the (largely unprepared) colonial garrisons in the central provinces, and in towns such as Cawnpore, Lucknow, Agra and Delhi, European survivors had been forced to retreat into fortified buildings and hastily constructed entrenchments. Havelock's aim was to relieve the besieged British garrisons at Cawnpore and Lucknow, and his soldiers had already fought three battles against Indian rebel contingents in their advance north. During their march, news had reached Havelock that the defence force at Cawnpore, under General Wheeler, had surrendered to the local noble, Dhoandu Pant, or 'Nana Saheb', who nursed long-held grievances against the British and had joined the rebels. The surrender had been negotiated with promises of safe passage for the besieged garrison, which now numbered about four hundred people, but Nana Saheb had subsequently executed several British officers, and over two hundred Europeans had also been killed at the riverside Satichaura ghat as they boarded boats to take them down the Ganges (Mukherjee 1990: 108-12). The traumatised survivors of both the siege and the ghat massacre - mostly women and children - had been recaptured and imprisoned in an empty house on the outskirts of the town. Anxious to save these remaining hostages, Havelock's troops endured forced marches through the sweltering, flooded countryside and, alongside another relief force under Major Renaud, led a final attack against Nana's troops outside Cawnpore. As Havelock's soldiers broke through the defending lines, Nana Saheb retreated towards Bithoor and thousands of Cawnpore's Indian inhabitants fled into the surrounding countryside in fear of British retaliation (Hibbert 1980: 208).

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1857 年 7 月 17 日，由年迈且具有福音派信仰的准将亨利·哈夫洛克率领的一支疲惫不堪的军队，终于抵达坎普尔（Kanpur/Cawnpore）1。哈夫洛克临时拼凑的部队由第 78 高地团、锡克士兵和马德拉斯第一燧发枪团的士兵组成，是在阿拉哈巴德仓促组建的一支机动反叛乱部队，目的在于镇压两个月前在东印度公司军队中爆发的民众起义——即所谓的“兵变”。1857 年起义受到东印度公司吞并奥德以及高种姓士兵担忧被强迫改宗等因素的推动，很快便击溃了中部各省大多毫无准备的殖民驻军。在坎普尔、勒克瑙、阿格拉和德里等城市，幸存的欧洲人被迫撤入设防建筑和匆忙修筑的防御工事。哈夫洛克的目标是解救坎普尔和勒克瑙被围困的英国驻军；在向北推进的过程中，他的士兵已经与印度起义军交战三次。行军途中，哈夫洛克得知，由惠勒将军指挥的坎普尔防卫部队已经向当地贵族东杜·潘特（Dhoandu Pant），即“纳纳·萨希布”（Nana Saheb）投降。纳纳长期对英国人心怀不满，并加入了起义者。投降协议原本承诺让约四百名被围困者安全撤离，但此后纳纳·萨希布处决了数名英国军官；另有两百多名欧洲人在萨蒂乔拉河坛（Satichaura ghat）登船、准备沿恒河下行时被杀（Mukherjee 1990: 108-12）。围城和河坛屠杀的幸存者——其中大多是妇女和儿童——又被抓回，并关押在城郊的一所空房里。为了营救这些最后的俘虏，哈夫洛克的部队冒着酷暑，穿过被洪水浸泡的乡野强行军，并与雷诺少校率领的另一支援军一道，在坎普尔城外对纳纳的部队发动最后进攻。随着哈夫洛克的士兵突破防线，纳纳·萨希布撤向比图尔，数千名坎普尔的印度居民则因担心英国报复而逃往周边乡村（Hibbert 1980: 208）。

English original

Cawnpore is a colonial mistransliteration of the town's name, and the more phonetically accurate Kanpur is now preferred by most historians. The use of Kanpur in official and academic texts reflects the wider ongoing linguistic and geographical re-appropriations of place-names by the Indian state, but Cawnpore's mistransliteration was, in fact, also recognised before Indian independence in colonial reference-texts: in Hobson-Jobson, the dictionary of Indian-English, the name is given as Kānhpur, even though 'Cawnpore' was the conventional spelling. For reasons of consistency, and because I will be discussing the town largely as a colonial signifier of atrocity, I will retain the colonial form in this paper.

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“Cawnpore”是殖民时期对该城市名称的误译写形式，如今大多数历史学家更倾向于使用更符合语音的“Kanpur”。官方和学术文本中使用 Kanpur，反映了印度国家持续进行的、更广泛的地名语言与地理再占有过程。不过，事实上早在印度独立以前，殖民时期的工具书已经意识到 Cawnpore 这一拼写并不准确：在印度英语词典《Hobson-Jobson》中，该地名写作 Kānhpur，尽管当时惯用的拼写仍然是“Cawnpore”。为保持行文一致，也因为本文主要把这座城市作为殖民语境中“暴行”的符号来讨论，我将继续使用殖民时期的写法 Cawnpore。

English original

Entering the town, Havelock's men were about to become the horrified, belated witnesses of what G. O. Trevelyan (one of Cawnpore's most influential contemporary historians) would later call 'the most terrible tragedy of our age' (Trevelyan 2006: 4). The prosaic stage for this tragedy was the bibighar, the house in which Nana Saheb had confined the survivors of the Satichaura ghat massacre. Here Havelock's men were met not by grateful European and Eurasian hostages, but by the evidence of a terrible massacre. On the 15th, two days before the relief force re-took Cawnpore, an execution squad of local butchers and villagers led by Nana Saheb's bodyguard, Sarvur Khan, had entered the bibighar and methodically cut down the prisoners with their swords (Ward 2004: 415). They then dumped the stripped and mutilated bodies of the women and children in a nearby well. Like the 'Black Hole' of Calcutta a century before, the site of colonial abjection was an architectural one, but without an authoritative victim-narrator2 it would become a contested text in its own right. As the horrified soldiers walked into the enclosed courtyard of the bibighar, they found numerous traces of the killings: blood covered the floor, and the rooms were littered with pieces of clothing, daguerreotype cases, bonnets, shoes, and other 'unspeakable remnants' of violent death (Robinson 1996: 126). The traces of the bibighar massacre quickly came to signify cruelty taken to oriental excess; the European and Eurasian captives had, it was assumed, been raped or 'dishonoured' in the most brutal way before their deaths. Stories circulated amongst the soldiers of horrifying things found in the bibighar, including shoes arranged in rows with severed feet still in them, and children nailed to the walls with bayonets (Hibbert 1980: 213). In the house, the soldiers of Havelock's expeditionary force sifted through the debris of the massacre and agonised over traces of the violence: sabre cuts in the masonry and the hair of the victims recur in their descriptions and in several accounts the floor swims 'ankle deep' in blood (Crump 1858; Holmes 1883: 301). Overcome with 'pity and anger', officers and men paraded day after day through the scene of what was described as 'these most atrocious, fiendish of murders'. 'The poor poor creatures,' lamented one witness after looking at the bodies that filled the well, 'It was a sight I wish I had never seen, but once seen never to be forgotten' (Hibbert 1980: 209). It is clearly evident from surviving accounts that the Cawnpore massacre and the inferred rape of women there had a devastating effect on the belated witnesses. As a terrible derangement of the protocols of nineteenth-century warfare, the scene in the bibighar appeared to rob Havelock's men of their masculinity: 'stalwart, bearded men, stern soldiers of the ranks … have been seen coming out of that house perfectly unmanned, utterly unable to repress their emotions' stated one witness, 'From them there will be no mercy for these villainous assassins' (Ward 2004: 437). In this case, what seems to have been a symbolic 'castrating' identification with the victims was a prelude to an immediate uncontrolled counter-violence - as an aggressive compensatory reassertion of gender roles - unleashed upon the local Indian population. The town's name had already started to become a signifier for something more than its own mundane civic status, and the exhortation to 'remember Cawnpore' would soon develop into a battle-cry that not only spurred colonial soldiers on in combat, but also marked a new, exceptional level of violence (recognised as grief-stricken retribution) permissible to them. Discovering a warehouse full of liquor soon after their arrival in Cawnpore, Havelock's soldiers 'remembered' the colonial dead by embarking on a chaotic tour of 'intoxication, plunder and rapine' (ibid.: 439) through the 'native town', a pattern that would be repeated in other cities retaken from the rebels. * The 1857 rebellion represented an unparalleled challenge to British colonial authority in India. In the face of such widespread co-ordinated armed resistance, liberal colonial assumptions about entitlement and evangelical mission could not be sustained, nor could Company rule continue unchanged after such a catastrophic reversal. In 1858, following a show trial in which the Mughal emperor Bahadur Shah II was convicted of treason, India came under the authority of the British Crown. In the years that followed, the 'Mutiny' would become a defining episode in British colonialism's historical narrative of itself. As a form of epic political rebirth, the 1857 rebellion lent a new sense of the legitimacy and providential entitlement to British rule in India, providing (in its successful suppression) an incontrovertible proof of the essential racial and technological superiority of the coloniser (Chakravarty 2006: 4). Simultaneously, the uprising also persisted in the colonial imagination as a terrifying example of betrayal, vulnerability and fallible governance - an uneasy, irrepressible memory of Anglo-Indian3 humiliation that revealed how powerless the (outnumbered) coloniser was against organised mass

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进入城中后，哈夫洛克的士兵即将以迟到的、惊骇的见证者身份，面对 G. O. 特里维廉——坎普尔最有影响力的同时代历史书写者之一——后来所称的“我们这个时代最可怕的悲剧”（Trevelyan 2006: 4）。这场悲剧发生在一处再普通不过的空间：比比加尔（bibighar），即纳纳·萨希布关押萨蒂乔拉河坛屠杀幸存者的房屋。哈夫洛克的部下在这里迎来的不是心怀感激的欧洲和欧亚裔人质，而是一次惨烈屠杀留下的证据。15 日，也就是援军重新夺取坎普尔前两天，由纳纳·萨希布的卫队长萨尔武尔·汗（Sarvur Khan）率领的一队当地屠夫和村民进入比比加尔，用刀剑有条不紊地砍杀俘虏（Ward 2004: 415）。随后，他们把妇女和儿童被剥去衣物、肢解的尸体扔进附近的一口井中。和一个世纪前加尔各答的“黑洞”一样，殖民者遭受屈辱和贬抑的地点也是一处建筑空间；但由于这里没有

一位具有权威性的受害者叙述者 2，它本身逐渐成为一个充满争议的“文本”。惊恐的士兵走进比比加尔封闭的庭院时，看到了大量屠杀痕迹：地板上满是血迹，房间里散落着衣物碎片、银版照相盒、女帽、鞋子以及其他暴力死亡留下的“难以言说的残余”（Robinson 1996: 126）。比比加尔屠杀的痕迹很快被理解为一种被推至“东方式”极端的残酷；人们推测，这些欧洲和欧亚裔俘虏在被杀之前曾遭到最残暴的强奸或“玷污”。士兵中流传着许多关于比比加尔可怖发现的故事，包括一排排鞋子里还残留着被砍断的脚，以及儿童被刺刀钉在墙上（Hibbert 1980: 213）。在这座房屋中，哈夫洛克远征军的士兵翻检屠杀后的残骸，并反复凝视暴力留下的痕迹：墙体上的军刀砍痕、受害者的头发一再出现在他们的叙述中；一些记录甚至称地板上的血“深及脚踝”（Crump 1858; Holmes 1883: 301）。在“怜悯与愤怒”驱使下，军官和士兵日复一日地走过这个被形容为“最残忍、最恶魔般的谋杀”现场。一名见证者在看过塞满尸体的井后哀叹道：“那些可怜、可怜的人啊……这是我宁愿从未见过的景象；然而一旦见过，就永远无法忘记。”（Hibbert 1980: 209）现存记录清楚表明，坎普尔屠杀以及人们所推定的女性遭强奸，对这些迟到的见证者造成了毁灭性的冲击。作为对十九世纪战争规范的一次骇人破坏，比比加尔的现场似乎夺走了哈夫洛克士兵的男性气概。一位见证者写道：“强壮、蓄须的男子，军中严厉的士兵……从那所房子里出来时完全失去了男子气概，彻底无法控制自己的情绪。”他接着说：“这些恶毒的凶手休想从他们那里得到任何宽恕。”（Ward 2004: 437）在这里，对受害者某种象征性的、“阉割式”的认同，成为随后立即爆发且失控的反向暴力的前奏——这种暴力作为对性别角色的侵略性补偿和重新确认，被施加到当地印度居民身上。这座城市的名字已经开始超越其普通行政地名的意义；“记住坎普尔”的号召很快变成一种战斗口号，不仅激励殖民士兵投入战斗，也标志着一种新的、例外性的暴力程度——被解释为悲痛中的报复——开始被允许。抵达坎普尔不久，哈夫洛克的士兵发现了一座装满酒的仓库，于是通过在“本地人城区”展开一场混乱的“酗酒、抢掠与强暴之旅”（ibid.: 439）来“纪念”殖民者死者；这种模式此后还会在从起义者手中重新夺回的其他城市中重演。*

1857 年起义对英国在印度的殖民权威构成了前所未有的挑战。在如此广泛且有组织的武装抵抗面前，自由主义殖民思想中关于统治权利和福音传教使命的既有假设已无法维持；经历这样一次灾难性逆转后，东印度公司的统治也不可能原样延续。1858 年，莫卧儿皇帝巴哈杜尔·沙二世在一次具有表演性质的审判中被判叛国罪，此后印度转由英国王室直接统治。在随后数年里，这场“兵变”成为英国殖民主义自我历史叙事中的一个决定性事件。作为一种史诗式的政治重生，1857 年起义反而为英国在印度的统治赋予了新的合法性与“天意授权”感；起义被成功镇压，也被用作殖民者在种族和技术上具有根本优越性的无可辩驳的证明（Chakravarty 2006: 4）。与此同时，这场起义在殖民想象中又持续作为一个可怕的背叛、脆弱性和治理可能失败的例证——它是一段令人不安、无法压抑的英印殖民社群受辱记忆，揭示出在面对有组织的大规模叛乱时，人数处于少数的殖民者可以多么无力，也揭示出情报失误和政策错误多么容易反过来伤害英国人。

English original

An interesting comparable text that does provide a figure of the victim-narrator is, of course, John Zephaniah Holwell’s account of his experiences in the ‘Black Hole’, A Genuine Narrative of the Deplorable Deaths of the English Gentlemen, and Others, who were suffocated in the Black-Hole in Fort William, at Calcutta, published in 1758. I use this somewhat old-fashioned term to designate Anglophone Europeans connected with Britain’s military or administrative presence and resident in India.

中文译文

一个有趣且可比较的文本确实提供了“受害者叙述者”这一角色，即约翰·泽法尼亚·霍尔韦尔（John Zephaniah Holwell）关于自己在“黑洞”中经历的记述：《关于英国绅士及其他人在加尔各答威廉堡黑洞中窒息惨死的真实叙述》（A Genuine Narrative of the Deplorable Deaths of the English Gentlemen, and Others, who were suffocated in the

Black-Hole in Fort William, at Calcutta），出版于 1758 年。本文使用“Anglo-Indian”这一略显陈旧的术语，是为了指称那些与英国在印度的军事或行政存在相关、居住在印度并使用英语的欧洲人。

English original

rebellion, and how easily intelligence-failures and policy mistakes could rebound against the British. Both these positions shaped a retrospective culture of ‘continuous commemoration’ and ‘imperial thanksgiving’ that preserved 1857 as: ‘a caesural moment in the history of the Indian empire - replete with signs and wonders […] - when all was nearly lost only to be regained once more’ (ibid.). The ‘continuous commemoration’ of the rebellion eventually encompassed a vast range of colonial texts and discourses, from memoirs and ‘Mutiny’ fictions to official histories and photographic records. It also inscribed the subcontinent with a new geography of remembrance, transforming towns like Cawnpore and Lucknow into shrines to colonial history, and preserving public memories of the 1857 rebellion in a meticulously maintained heritage-architecture of siege-sites, cemeteries and cenotaphs. In the following pages we will discuss some of these commemorative practices and their relationship to more personal, traumatised memories in greater detail, but first we must pause in order to consider the formal complexity of colonial memory-cultures. Commenting recently on post/colonial commemorations of 1857, the historian Dipesh Chakrabarty locates three categories of remembrance which are worth further consideration. Relating each category to a specific linguistic-discursive function, Chakrabarty differentiates commemoration into forms of ‘memorialising’, ‘memorising’ and ‘remembering /forgetting’, each of which represent metaphoric, metonymic and ‘extra- representational’ modes respectively4. Chakrabarty’s first category, the Mutiny ‘memorial’, includes buildings, images and archival documents that are consecrated through special rituals, thus creating out of ‘a set of events’ a ‘second or higher-order [metaphorical] representation’(Chakrabarty 2007: 1692). This ‘memorialising’ category corresponds, roughly, to the first type of ‘epic’ national-racial remembrance described above. In contrast, Chakrabarty’s second category, ‘memorising’, is a fearful understanding of 1857 as a metonym for insurgency as a whole, and thus relates more clearly to the second, anxiety-ridden remembrance of the Mutiny noted earlier. Public memory thus shares itself, in this model, between metaphoric and metonymic modes. There is, however, still a third, more personal form of remembrance to elucidate, which Chakrabarty describes as ‘the past as personal grief’. In the painful experience of grieving, the past is ‘commemorated’ subjectively through a combined process of memory and forgetting, and is not readily amenable to conventional forms of historical research. As Chakrabarty cautions: ‘memory-practices to do with [a…] deeply personal sense of loss challenge historical representation […] because these practices speak often to a level [of …] existence that is better captured by phenomenological thinking than by the kind of paper-trail that the historian routinely chases’ (Chakrabarty 2007: 1692). Chakrabarty’s formulation is engaging precisely because it theorises the pain of grief, on both sides of the 1857 conflict, as a stubborn cognitive absence (and therefore as something beyond the politics of representation).5 But even as we make the ethical acknowledgement that we can never fully know another’s trauma or loss, it is important to register the material effects of grief as a type of collective memory and, in order to do so, we need to question any strict compartmentalisation of the categories outlined above. We will see in some of the texts discussed later that colonial commemoration was a more involved process than Chakrabarty’s schema allows,6 and was rarely contained by or completely restricted to any one category. Indeed, Chakrabarty’s first two ‘memorialising’ and ‘memorising’ functions of remembrance frequently articulate themselves as related or ‘nested’ components of commemoration, evoking the sort of inter-relationship of ‘memory and forgetting’ that Chakrabarty reserves for the third category of grief. The fact that public practices of colonial commemoration operate, at times, like the messier private repressions and instabilities of traumatised memory alerts us once again to the possibility that grief and mourning, while not completely analogous or irreducible to them, might shadow (and even inform) public commemorative modes as their spectral counterpart. In the rest of this essay we will return to Cawnpore to assess the politics of ‘mournful’ counter- insurgency as the problematic ontological - what Derrida would call hauntological 7 - opening point for a longer narrative of colonial remembrance. Rather than being something that discretely marks the start

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这两种立场共同塑造出一种回顾性的“持续纪念”与“帝国感恩”文化，使 1857 年被保存为“印度帝国历史中的一个断裂时刻——充满征兆与奇迹……一切几乎尽失，却又重新夺回”（ibid.）。对起义的“持续纪念”最终涵盖了数量庞大的殖民文本和话语，从回忆录、‘兵变’小说，到官方历史和摄影记录。它还在南亚次大陆上刻写出一套新的记忆地理，把坎普尔、勒克瑙等城市转化为殖民历史的圣地，并通过精心维护的围城遗址、墓地和衣冠冢等遗产建筑，使 1857 年起义的公共记忆得以持续保存。下文将更详细地讨论这些纪念实践及其与更加私人化、创伤性记忆之间的关系；但在此之前，我们需要先停下来考察殖民记忆文化在形式上的复杂性。历史学家迪佩什·查克拉巴蒂（Dipesh Chakrabarty）在近期讨论 1857 年的后殖民／殖民纪念时，区分了三种值得进一步思考的记忆

类型。他把每一种类型与特定的语言—话语功能相联系，将纪念区分为“建构纪念物”（memorialising）、“记诵／铭记”（memorising）以及“记忆／遗忘”（remembering/forgetting）三种形式，它们分别对应隐喻、转喻和“表征之外”的模式 4。查克拉巴蒂的第一类，即“兵变纪念物”，包括通过特殊仪式被神圣化的建筑、图像和档案文件；这些媒介把“一组事件”转化为一种“第二层或更高层次的［隐喻性］表征”（Chakrabarty 2007: 1692）。这种“纪念化”大体对应前面所说的第一种“史诗式”民族—种族记忆。相比之下，他的第二类“铭记”，把 1857 年恐惧性地理解为整个叛乱现象的转喻，因此更接近前述第二种充满焦虑的“兵变”记忆。在这一模型中，公共记忆因此分布在隐喻与转喻两种模式之间。不过，还有第三种更具私人性质的记忆形式需要说明，查克拉巴蒂称之为“作为个人悲痛的过去”。在痛苦的哀伤经验中，过去通过记忆与遗忘相结合的过程，以主观方式被“纪念”；这种过程并不容易被常规历史研究方法所把握。正如查克拉巴蒂提醒我们的：“与［一种……］极为私人化的失落感相关的记忆实践，会挑战历史表征……因为这些实践往往指向［……］某个存在层次，而现象学思考比历史学家通常追寻的纸面证据链更能捕捉它。”（Chakrabarty 2007: 1692）这一论述之所以引人注目，正是因为它把 1857 年冲突双方的悲痛理论化为一种顽固的认知缺失，因此也将其置于表征政治之外 5。然而，即便我们在伦理上承认自己永远无法完全理解他人的创伤或失落，我们仍有必要注意悲痛作为一种集体记忆所产生的物质效果。为此，我们必须质疑上述类别之间任何过于严格的划分。后文将看到，在某些文本中，殖民纪念比查克拉巴蒂的框架所容纳的过程更加复杂 6，而且很少完全局限于单一类别。事实上，查克拉巴蒂前两种“纪念化”和“铭记”功能经常以相互关联、甚至彼此“嵌套”的纪念组成部分出现，从而唤起一种“记忆与遗忘”的互相关系——而查克拉巴蒂原本把这种关系保留给第三种“悲痛”类别。殖民公共纪念实践有时会像创伤记忆中更为混乱的私人压抑和不稳定一样运行；这一事实再次提醒我们，悲痛与哀悼虽然不能完全等同于这些公共模式，也不能被化约为它们，却可能像幽灵般的对应物一样尾随、甚至塑造公共纪念方式。在本文余下部分，我将重新回到坎普尔，考察“哀悼式”反叛乱的政治，把它视为更长的殖民记忆叙事中一个有问题的本体论起点——用德里达的话说，也就是“幽灵学”（hauntological）7 的起点。

English original

Chakrabarty’s use of linguistic terms is reminiscent of the structuralist interpretative frameworks employed by fellow subaltern studies theorists like Ranajit Guha. A problem most notably addressed in various debates over the remembrance culture of the holocaust, but also apposite to the collective postcolonial engagement with the traumatic memory of Indo-Pakistani Partition. The possibility of a more complex relationship between these modes is acknowledged by Chakrabarty in his opening comments, and in a proviso that they do not exhaust ‘the complex phenomenon of memory’ (Chakrabarty 2007: 1692). In Derrida’s exposition on the legacy/memory of Marx, for which he invokes the spirit-apparition in Hamlet, ‘hauntology’ is defined as ‘larger and more powerful than an ontology or a thinking of Being’. More significantly, for Derrida the figure of the haunting spirit always involves a sense of return or repetition (revenant – ‘that which comes back’), and also ‘harbours within itself […] eschatology and teleology’ (Derrida 1994:10; n.177).

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查克拉巴蒂对语言学术语的使用，让人联想到拉纳吉特·古哈等庶民研究理论家采用的结构主义解释框架。这里涉及的问题，在围绕大屠杀记忆文化的多次争论中表现得最为突出，同时也适用于后殖民社会对印巴分治创伤记忆的集体回应。查克拉巴蒂在开篇评论中已经承认这些模式之间可能存在更复杂的关系，并特别说明它们并不能穷尽“记忆这一复杂现象”（Chakrabarty 2007: 1692）。德里达在讨论马克思的遗产／记忆时借用了《哈姆雷特》中的幽灵形象，并把“幽灵学”（hauntology）定义为“比本体论或关于存在的思考更广大、更有力量”的东西。更重要的是，对德里达而言，幽灵总意味着回返或重复（revenant，即“返回之物”），同时还“在自身内部包含着……末世论与目的论”（Derrida 1994: 10; n.177）。

English original

of a more public commemorative process, we will see that forms of grief and mourning persist after 1857 - alongside other forms - as one of colonialism's concealed commemorative possibilities. And while the phenomenological texture of grief may be irretrievable from the archive, or exist at a remove from it, I want to suggest that colonial fiction (in this case Rudyard Kipling's reflexive fictional re- presentations of 1857) provides us with an imaginative textual archive in which 'mournful' rituals of commemoration and the ghostly revenant memory of insurgency may still be traced in Anglo-Indian culture. Reflecting on our qualifications to Chakrabarty's schema, a further point becomes apparent: that as a commemorative form that is both integral and external to the 'public' process of official commemoration, excessive grief may be political in a way that (uniquely) reveals the supporting logic of colonial governance. This is because, in instances such as the 'counter-insurgent' mourning at Cawnpore, grief sanctions a suspension of the law, and thus reveals a constitutive ambiguity at the very heart of colonial sovereignty – an ambiguity that involves the latter's problematic relationship with its own 'founding' violence. At a constitutional level, colonial sovereignty was never freely conferred by Britain's Indian subjects (Guha 1997; Dirks 2006), and therefore colonialism's erratic monopoly on violence had to be legitimised through alternatives such as 'dual sovereignty'8 and the 'rule of law'(Singha 1998). At the same time, colonial government had to be ready to ignore its own contractual and legal frameworks, and enforce military control at times of heightened danger. In such situations, 'the brutality of violating native bodies continually threatened scandal' and excessive colonial violence could easily become morally self-defeating, contradicting the civilising claims of empire (Pierce and Rao 2006: 21). Consequently, at times when British colonialism did resort to extreme violence, suspending its legal self-regulation, it often provided justification in back-dated stories about the (illegitimate) violence of the colonised, against which it acted. Cawnpore can be located as one interval in a genealogy of such events, starting with the Calcutta 'Black Hole' in 1756 (an atrocity with which many witnesses of the bibighar drew horrified comparisons), which was used to justify Clive's military 'response' at the subsequent battle of Plassey. On these terms, grief marks a transition from the violence of conventional counter-insurgency, regulated through forms of military law, to a qualitatively different form of violence (as 'vengeance') sanctioned by older community-based narratives of deviance, despoiled innocence and transgressed sexual taboos. As a commemorative practice, it marks the threshold point at which colonial sovereignty defines itself, at its most elemental level, in its decision to move from constituted to constituting power; to switch between what Walter Benjamin terms the 'law-preserving' violence of the state's legal and administrative apparatus to the extra-legal ('mythical') 'law-making' violence that underpins its very existence (Benjamin 1978: 287-8). (Benjamin famously contrasts the latter with his messianic concept of a divine violence - representing the realm of pure means - that supersedes legal violence and becomes, in his work, as much a projection of a political ideal, a world to come, as a category descriptive of particular revolutionary situations.) 9

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与其把悲痛看成只是更公开的纪念过程的一个清晰起点，我们会看到，1857 年以后，悲痛和哀悼与其他形式并存，并作为殖民主义一种隐蔽的纪念可能性持续存在。即便悲痛的现象学质感可能无法从档案中重新寻回，或者始终与档案保持距离，我仍想提出，殖民小说——这里具体指拉迪亚德·吉卜林对 1857 年的反思性虚构再现——为我们提供了一个富有想象力的文本档案；在其中，英印殖民文化中“哀悼式”的纪念仪式，以及起义记忆如幽灵般回返的踪迹，仍然可以被追寻。在修正查克拉巴蒂框架的过程中，还可以看到另一点：过度的悲痛作为一种既内在于官方“公共”纪念过程、又处在这一过程之外的纪念形式，可能以一种独特方式具有政治性，并由此揭示殖民治理背后的支撑逻辑。原因在于，在坎普尔这种“反叛乱式”哀悼中，悲痛为法律的暂停提供了正当性，因此暴露出殖民主权核心处的一种构成性歧义——也就是殖民主权与其自身“奠基性”暴力之间的棘手关系。在宪政层面，殖民主权从来不是英国的印度臣民自由授予的（Guha 1997; Dirks 2006）；因此，殖民主义对暴力时断时续的垄断必须借助“二元主权”8 和“法治”等其他方式来获得合法性（Singha 1998）。与此同时，在危险加剧之时，殖民政府又必须随时准备无视自己订立的契约和法律框架，转而实施军事控制。在这样的情境中，“侵犯本地人身体的残酷性不断存在演变成丑闻的危险”，过度的殖民暴力也很容易在道德上产生反效果，与帝国所谓文明使命相矛盾（Pierce and Rao 2006: 21）。因此，当英国殖民主义确实诉诸极端暴力、暂停自身法律约束时，它往往通过事后追溯的故事来提供理由：先叙述被殖民者的（非法）暴力，再把自己的暴力解释为针对它的回应。坎普尔可以被放入这样一系列事件的谱系之中，其起点可追溯至 1756 年的加尔各答“黑洞”——许多比比加尔的见证者曾惊恐地把两者相比；这一“暴行”后来也被用来为克莱夫在普拉西战役中的军事“回应”提供正当化依

据。按照这一理解，悲痛标志着一种转变：从受军事法规范的常规反叛乱暴力，转向一种性质不同的暴力，也就是作为“复仇”的暴力；后者由更古老的社群叙事来授权，这些叙事围绕越轨、被玷污的纯洁以及遭到侵犯的性禁忌展开。作为一种纪念实践，它标示了殖民主权在最基本层面自我界定的门槛：主权决定从既成权力转向制宪／创制性权力；在瓦尔特·本雅明所谓国家法律—行政装置中“维护法律”的暴力，与支撑国家存在本身的法外、“神话式”“创制法律”的暴力之间进行切换（Benjamin 1978: 287-8）。（本雅明著名地把后者与其弥赛亚式的“神圣暴力”概念相对照；神圣暴力代表“纯粹手段”的领域，超越法律暴力。在他的论述中，它既是一种对未来世界、政治理想的投射，也是一种用来描述特定革命情境的范畴。）9

Mutiny and Mourning: Cawnpore and Counterinsurgency

兵变与哀悼：坎普尔与反叛乱

English original

Cawnpore’s notoriety as a (memorialised/memorised) master signifier of anti-colonial violence depended very largely on a pre-existing stock of Mutiny atrocity-narratives. These rumoured, formulaic10 atrocity stories circulated throughout India during the ‘crisis months’ of the conflict (July to November 1857), and consisted of accounts of European women and children killed by rebel soldiers in various centres of the rebellion, embellished with shocking, often grotesque details of torture, mutilation and rape. Reprinted in the Calcutta and London presses, atrocity narratives transformed the rebellion from an act of armed political resistance into a violent sexual crime against European women. As feminist critics such as Jenny Sharpe claim, the development of a schematised Mutiny ‘rape-script’

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坎普尔之所以臭名昭著，并成为反殖民暴力的一个主要符号（既被“纪念化”又被“铭记”），很大程度上依赖于一批早已存在的“兵变暴行叙事”。在冲突的“危机月份”（1857 年 7 月至 11 月），这些以传闻形式流传、具有固定套路 10 的暴行故事遍布印度，内容通常讲述起义军士兵在各个起义中心杀害欧洲妇女和儿童，并附加令人震惊、往往极其骇人的酷刑、肢解和强奸细节。这些故事经加尔各答和伦敦的报刊转载后，把这场起义从一种武装政治抵抗改写成针对欧洲女性的暴力性犯罪。正如珍妮·夏普（Jenny Sharpe）等女性主义批评家所指出的，逐渐形成的程式化“兵变强奸脚本”……

English original

As Edmund Burke noticed, the important aspect of the diwani or mandate given to the East India Company to trade and collect revenue in Bengal was that ‘It gave the settlement of Bengal a fixed constitutional form because it arose from the charter of the undoubted sovereign’ – moreover, as Burke pointed out, under this dual system the British ‘had all the real power without any of the invidious appearance of it; it gave [the East India Company] the revenue, without the parade of sovereignty’ (Dirks 2006: 176). See Benjamin (1978). Slavoj Žižek makes the following point about Benajmin’s category of the divine violence: ‘Paradoxically, divine violence does partially overlap with the bio-political disposal of [Giorgio Agamben’s concept of] Homini sacer: in both cases, killing is neither a crime nor a sacrifice […] one should not be afraid to assert the formal parallel between the state annihilation of Homini sacer, for example the Nazi killing of the Jews, and the revolutionary terror’ (Žižek 2008: 168). For a key discussion see Ranajit Guha’s essay ‘The Prose of Counter-Insurgency’ (Guha and Spivak 1988: 45- 88).

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正如埃德蒙·伯克注意到的，东印度公司获准在孟加拉贸易并征收税收的 diwani（税收管理权／敕令）之所以重要，在于“它使孟加拉的殖民建制获得了固定的宪制形式，因为这种权力源自无可争议的主权者所授予的特许”；而且，伯克指出，在这种二元体系下，英国人“拥有全部实际权力，却没有任何令人反感的权力外观；它给予［东印度公司］税收权，却没有主权的仪式展示”（Dirks 2006: 176）。参见 Benjamin (1978)。斯拉沃热·齐泽克这样评论本雅明的“神圣暴力”范畴：“悖论在于，神圣暴力与［乔治·阿甘本概念中的］‘神圣人’（homo

sacer）遭到的生命政治处置部分重叠：在两种情况下，杀戮既不是犯罪，也不是祭献……我们不应害怕指出，在国家对 homo sacer 的消灭——例如纳粹屠杀犹太人——与革命恐怖之间，存在一种形式上的平行关系”（Žižek 2008: 168）。关于这一问题的重要讨论，可参见拉纳吉特·古哈的《反叛乱的散文》（“The Prose of Counter-Insurgency”，Guha and Spivak 1988: 45-88）。

English original

preserved colonial authority by displacing attention from threatened male bodies: ‘a discourse of rape – that is the violent reproduction of gender roles – helped manage the crisis in authority so crucial to colonial self-representation at the time’ (Sharpe 1993: 67). Developing on these ideas, some critics have read the rape script in similar terms of gender contrast, in which the compromised, ‘emasculated’ masculine honour of Indian men served to bolster colonial masculinities, making British vengeance ‘appear all the more virile’ (Blunt 2000: 408).11 Others have perceptively traced classical and biblical archetypes of rape in atrocity narratives (notably the rape of Lucrece) in which sexual violation - followed almost invariably by death - was made ‘thinkable’, by its coding as exemplary self-sacrifice (Paxton 1999: 115-6). Partly because they were so politically charged, these allegations of atrocity soon became the subject of an official enquiry. In the summer of 1857 Lord Canning, the Governor General, commissioned an intelligence investigation into the truth of atrocity narratives, finding, subsequently, little evidence of widespread rape and/or mutilation of European women prior to their deaths (David 2002: 257).12 By the time the results of the investigation were circulated, however, the British had regained control of Delhi and other key towns, and reprisals had become less frequent. Moreover, atrocity stories (invariably linked to the fearful image of rape) had already become a vital component in colonialism’s collective consciousness, forming a prurient ‘public mythology’ of Mutiny in the subsequent flood of melodramatic memoirs, plays and novels devoted to the conflict (Tuson 1998: 291). The atrocity narrative retained its cultural currency in historical Mutiny-fictions as late as the 1880s and 90s, where it re-affirmed British imperialism’s epic sense of its own mission in the subcontinent, retroactively supporting new ideals of colonial masculinity – emblematised, incidentally, by soldier-heroes such as Havelock (see Dawson 1994: 117-54). While technologies of colonial gender are key to any critical discussion of the Mutiny atrocity narrative, our focus here is not on rape or rape-allegations, but on the inclusion of rape, as ‘atrocity’, into an integrated commemorative narrative of assault, death and mourning. Here, in these conjoined narratives, which become synonymous with Cawnpore, we can start to theorise mourning as a process that preserves colonial sovereignty in the material differentiation between what Judith Butler describes as the ‘grievable life’ and ‘the life that cannot be grieved’. Questioning concepts of private grief, familiar to us from Chakrabarty’s work, Butler argues that ‘many people think that grief is privatizing, that it returns us to a solitary situation and is, in that sense, depoliticizing. But I think it furnishes a sense of political community of a complex order’ (Butler 2004: 22). Butler is, of course, theorising recent instances of ‘mobilised’ mourning here, and we must bear in mind that in the period contemporaneous with the 1857 rebellion, defined by one cultural historian as the zenith of a Victorian funereal culture (Berridge 2001), mourning would have been an even more familiar, elaborate process, promoting considerably deeper community identification.13 The political capacity of mourning is something that the philosopher Giorgio Agamben notes in his recent work on sovereignty and legal exception, State of Exception (2005). Drawing on the writings of Walter Benjamin and Carl Schmitt, Agamben’s theorising of sovereignty circles around an aporia in which sovereign power expresses itself as a suspension of /exception to the law. As Schmitt states: ‘Sovereign is he who decides on the state of exception’ (Schmitt [1922] 2005), and this axiom (which defines sovereignty in terms of its special relationship in and above the law) is developed by Agamben in an earlier work, Homo Sacer (1998), where he notes an asymmetrical correspondence between sovereign power and the ‘bare life’ of sacred man or homo sacer: ‘The sovereign sphere is the sphere in which it is permitted to kill without committing homicide and without celebrating a sacrifice, and sacred life - that is, life that may be killed but not sacrificed - is the life that has been captured in this sphere’. [Italics in original] (Agamben 1998: 83). In State of Exception Agamben discusses several instances of the political exception and, for our purposes, the most telling is the paradigmatic case of the emergency declaration issued by the ancient Roman senate, termed the iustitium. Here the duties

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这一强奸话语通过把注意力从受到威胁的男性身体上转移开来，维持了殖民权威：“关于强奸的话语——也就是以暴力方式重新生产性别角色——帮助处理了当时对殖民自我表述至关重要的权威危机”（Sharpe 1993: 67）。在这一观点基础上，一些批评者也从类似的性别对立角度理解强奸脚本：印度男性受损、被“去男性化”的男性荣誉，反过来强化了殖民男性气质，使英国人的复仇“显得更加阳刚”（Blunt 2000: 408）。11 另一些研究敏锐地追踪了暴行叙事中来自古典传统和《圣经》的强奸原型——尤其是卢克丽霞受辱的故事；在这些原型中，性暴力几乎

总是紧随死亡，而它之所以变得“可以想象”，是因为被编码为一种典范性的自我牺牲（Paxton 1999: 115-6）。也正因为这些暴行指控具有如此强烈的政治性，它们很快成为官方调查的对象。1857 年夏，总督坎宁勋爵下令情报部门调查这些暴行叙事的真实性，后来发现几乎没有证据能够证明欧洲女性在死亡之前曾广泛遭到强奸和／或肢解（David 2002: 257）。12 然而，等调查结果开始流传时，英国人已经重新控制德里及其他关键城市，报复行动也变得不那么频繁。更重要的是，暴行故事——几乎总是与令人恐惧的强奸意象相连——此时已经成为殖民主义集体意识的关键组成部分，并在随后大量以这场冲突为主题的煽情回忆录、戏剧和小说中，形成关于“兵变”的一种带有窥淫色彩的“公共神话”（Tuson 1998: 291）。直到 19 世纪 80、90 年代，暴行叙事仍在历史题材的“兵变小说”中保持其文化效力；这些作品重新确认英国帝国主义对自身南亚使命的史诗式理解，并从事后角度支持新的殖民男性气质理想——其象征人物之一正是哈夫洛克这样的军人英雄（见 Dawson 1994: 117-54）。殖民性别机制当然是批判“兵变暴行叙事”时不可回避的问题，但本文关注的并非强奸本身或关于强奸的指控，而是强奸如何以“暴行”的名义，被纳入一套把袭击、死亡和哀悼整合起来的纪念叙事。在这些最终与坎普尔几乎同义的复合叙事中，我们可以开始把哀悼理论化为一种维持殖民主权的过程：它通过物质上的区分，把生命划分为朱迪思·巴特勒所谓“可以被哀悼的生命”和“不能被哀悼的生命”。在质疑我们从查克拉巴蒂那里熟悉的“私人悲痛”概念时，巴特勒指出：“许多人认为悲痛会把人私人化，使我们返回一种孤立状态，并因此去政治化。但我认为，悲痛反而提供了一种复杂层次上的政治共同体意识”（Butler 2004: 22）。巴特勒在这里讨论的当然是较近时期的“动员式”哀悼；但我们还必须记住，与 1857 年起义同时代的英国，被一位文化史家称为维多利亚时代丧葬文化的顶峰（Berridge 2001），因此哀悼在当时会是一种更加熟悉、更加繁复的社会过程，也能促成更深的共同体认同。13 哲学家乔治·阿甘本在其关于主权与法律例外的著作《例外状态》（State of Exception, 2005）中也注意到哀悼的政治能力。借助瓦尔特·本雅明和卡尔·施米特的著作，阿甘本围绕一个难题来理论化主权：主权权力通过暂停法律、成为法律的例外而表现自身。正如施米特所说：“主权者就是决定例外状态的人”（Schmitt [1922] 2005）。这一公理以主权相对于法律、既处于法律之中又凌驾其上的特殊关系来界定主权；阿甘本在较早的《神圣人》（Homo Sacer, 1998）中进一步发展了这一点。他指出，主权权力与 homo sacer（神圣人）的“赤裸生命”之间存在一种不对称的对应关系：“主权领域，是一个可以杀人而不构成杀人罪、也无需举行祭献的领域；神圣生命——也就是可以被杀死、却不能被献祭的生命——正是被捕捉到这一领域中的生命。”［原文斜体］（Agamben 1998: 83）在《例外状态》中，阿甘本讨论了多种政治例外的实例；对本文而言，最具启发性的是古罗马元老院发布紧急状态的典型制度——iustitium。在这种情况下，公共法的职责……

English original

This is a reading that the ‘neutering’ effect of the bibighar on its colonial male witnesses, noted earlier, complicates but does not necessarily contradict. ‘Debunking’ studies also appeared after the rebellion, such as Edward Leckey’s Fictions Connected with the Indian Outbreak of 1857 Exposed (1859), that systematically questioned reports of atrocities involving Anglo- Indian women. Acts of highly visible collective mourning, and the conventions surrounding public grief were reinforced in nineteenth-century Britain by the significance of widespread mourning for public figures. The Duke of Wellington’s elaborate state funeral in 1852 (Curl 2000: 211) and Queen Victoria’s extended mourning of Prince Albert after his death in 1861 frame the deaths of the rebellion, codifying conventional public grief, and ensuring that ‘more than marriage, death was the axis around which nineteenth-century British society spun.’(Berridge 2001: 139).

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这一解释由于前文提到的比比加尔对殖民男性见证者造成的“去男性化”效应而变得更复杂，但二者并不必然矛盾。起义之后也出现了旨在“揭穿”暴行故事的研究，例如爱德华·莱基（Edward Leckey）的《揭穿与 1857 年印度暴发事件有关的虚构》（Fictions Connected with the Indian Outbreak of 1857 Exposed, 1859），系统质疑了有关英

印女性遭受暴行的报道。在 19 世纪英国，对公共人物广泛举行哀悼的重要性，又进一步强化了高度可见的集体哀悼行为及公共悲痛的相关规范。1852 年威灵顿公爵盛大的国葬（Curl 2000: 211），以及 1861 年阿尔伯特亲王去世后维多利亚女王长期服丧，都构成理解起义死亡事件的社会框架，把公共悲痛编码为一种常规实践，并使“死亡而非婚姻，成为 19 世纪英国社会围绕其旋转的轴心”（Berridge 2001: 139）。

English original

and obligations of public law are suspended because the very basis of legality is under threat – in this situation exceptional (necessary) acts are sanctioned in order to preserve the constitutional authority of the republic. For Agamben the exception as iustitium has a crucial conceptual relationship with collective grief, evolving, in Roman law, into a general state of public mourning that marks the tumult at the sovereign's death. In this formulation, mourning coincides with a period of civic anomie (evoking an 'anomic terror') and thus takes on a dangerous form: 'If the sovereign is a living nomos, and if, for this reason, anomie and nomos perfectly coincide in his person, then anarchy (which threatens to loose itself in the city upon the sovereign's death, which is to say, when the nexus that joins it to the law is severed) must be ritualised […] transforming the state of exception into public mourning, and mourning into iustitium' (Agamben 2005: 70). Intriguingly, in Agamben's view, the iustitium has an 'inverse figure' in another archaic public practice: the saturnalia or carnival in which the political order is overturned, social and gender relations reversed, and 'criminal behaviour considered licit'. Agamben likens the 'anomic feast' to an ancient form of legal suspension that characterised 'archaic juridical institutions': the community ritual of 'rough music' or charivari, in which the community expelled the Other - the outlaw or bandit - from its midst. Thus 'in showing the mournful character of every feast and the festive character of all mourning, law and anomie show their distance and at the same time their secret solidarity' (Agamben 2005: 73). The connection between mourning and feasting, and the eruption of festive brutality in charivari is significant because it casts a unique light on the interweaving strains of fear and violence that constitute colonial culture under extreme threat. In the extensive existing scholarship, charivari is described as a folk practice, recorded throughout western Europe (especially France and Britain) from the middle ages to the early twentieth century, which involved an informal 'neighbourhood' judgement (often involving a mock-trial), and riotous punishment, against a member of the community who had contravened social convention. In Britain, charivari, known variously as 'rough music', 'skimmington' or 'hussitting' (see Thompson 1992:7; Seal 1987: 91), was most often an intervention into domestic life, against those who transgressed sexual or marital norms. Old men with much younger brides, men who beat their wives and/or children, and women considered adulterous were all potential targets for charivari, which usually involved the immediate community in a noisy 'musical' display outside the victim's house. This might include the wearing of animal costumes, a grotesque pantomimic sacrifice and the 'riding' of the victim on a wooden pole or (backwards) on a mule or horse, all of which was designed to humiliate the victim, and was often effective enough to force their departure from the neighbourhood soon afterwards (see Le Goff and Schmitt 1981; Thompson 1992). In their influential discussion of the cultural politics of carnival in The Politics and Poetics of Transgression (1986), Peter Stallybrass and Allon White's understanding of charivari as 'a scapegoating carnivalesque ritual' informs their nuanced response to Bakhtin's reading of carnival as a purely revolutionary force (see Bakhtin 1984). In Stallybrass and White's view, while the 'liberties of the fair could always be articulated politically against the propertied and the state' (Stallybrass and White 1986: 42), inverting and/or hybridising the social order, the grotesque force of carnival could also preserve or reinforce existing power-relations through demonising and scapegoating (ibid.: 56). Where the ritual energies of carnival become most relevant to us is the anti-semitic form they take in some instances of Italian charivari. In medieval carnivals in Venice and Rome, Jews were cast as the 'Lenten' enemies of the festival, and their religious proscriptions against pork used in a process of 'displaced abjection' in which, like the carnival pig, they became the focus of public hatred and persecution. Building on anthropological studies of pollution taboos, Stallybrass and White relate this custom to the commonplace way in which cultures stigmatise the Other through their (different) food- habits: 'By eliding the Jew with the pig the carnival crowd … [produced] a grotesque hybridisation of terms expressly antithetical to each other according to the dietary rules of their victims who, at carnival time, would be self-excluded from the great pig feast' (Stallybrass and White, 1986: 53). In this instance the carnival dynamic of charivari calls to mind Nietzsche's disturbing perception of cruelty as a Dionysian expression of power, and memory as a form of 'social pledge' intrinsic to blood, torture and sacrifice. Nietzsche reminds us that 'it is not long since princely weddings and public festivals […] were unthinkable without executions [and] torturings' and goes on to describe cruel punishments as 'one of the oldest festive joys of mankind' and the founding basis for memory, legal obligation and morality (Miller 1990: 475). How does this normative (folk-)theatre of cruelty translate to a colonial Indian setting? In the subcontinent, both the disproportionate numerical ratio of coloniser to colonised and a critical tendency to overlook political-discursive discontinuities between metropole and margin, have, I think, made it difficult to appreciate the way Anglo-India, as a close-knit civil and military community, could enforce a popular sovereign exception and effectively scapegoat the whole Indian population as homines sacrii

……与义务会被暂停，因为法律秩序本身的基础正受到威胁；在这种情况下，为了维护共和国的宪制权威，某些例外的、被认为“必要”的行为就会得到许可。对阿甘本而言，作为 iustitium 的“例外”与集体悲痛之间存在关键的概念联系。在罗马法的发展中，iustitium 逐渐演变为主权者死亡、政治秩序陷入动荡时的一般公共哀悼状态。在这一构想中，哀悼与一种城市失范期相重合——它唤起“失范式恐怖”——因而带有危险性质：“如果主权者是活生生的 nomos［法／规范］，并且正因如此，失范与 nomos 在其个人身上完全重合，那么，当主权者死亡，也就是把主权者与法律连接起来的纽带断裂时，可能在城市中释放出来的无政府状态就必须被仪式化……把例外状态转化为公共哀悼，再把哀悼转化为 iustitium”（Agamben 2005: 70）。有趣的是，在阿甘本看来，iustitium 在另一种古老公共实践中拥有一个“反面形态”：萨图尔纳利亚节或狂欢节。在这种节庆中，政治秩序被颠倒，社会关系和性别关系发生逆转，“犯罪行为被视为合法”。阿甘本把这种“失范的宴饮”与一种古老的法律暂停形式联系起来，这种形式存在于“古代司法制度”中，即“rough music”或 charivari 的社群仪式：共同体借此把“他者”——亡命者或强盗——驱逐出自身。因此，“通过揭示每一种节庆的哀悼性质以及每一种哀悼的节庆性质，法律与失范既展现出彼此之间的距离，同时也显露出它们秘密的团结关系”（Agamben 2005: 73）。哀悼与宴饮之间的联系，以及 charivari 中爆发的节庆式残酷非常重要，因为它以独特方式照亮了在极端威胁下构成殖民文化的恐惧与暴力如何交织。现有大量研究把 charivari 描述为一种民间习俗，从中世纪到 20 世纪初广泛见于西欧，尤其是法国和英国。它通常包含一种非正式的“邻里审判”（常常伴随模拟审判），随后对违反社会规范的共同体成员实施喧闹、公开的惩罚。在英国，charivari 又被称为“rough music”“skimmington”或“hussitting”（见 Thompson 1992: 7; Seal 1987: 91），最常见的形式是共同体介入私人家庭生活，针对那些违反性规范或婚姻规范的人。娶了年轻得多妻子的老年男子、殴打妻子和／或孩子的男子，以及被认为通奸的妇女，都可能成为 charivari 的对象。周围邻里通常会聚集在受罚者房屋外，进行喧闹的“音乐”表演。其中可能包括穿戴动物服饰、上演怪诞的拟态祭祀，以及把受罚者架在木杆上，或令其倒坐在骡马背上游街。所有这些做法都旨在羞辱受罚者，而且往往足以迫使其很快离开该社区（见 Le Goff and Schmitt 1981; Thompson 1992）。彼得·斯塔利布拉斯（Peter Stallybrass）和阿伦·怀特（Allon White）在《越界的政治与诗学》（The Politics and Poetics of Transgression, 1986）中对狂欢节文化政治进行了影响深远的讨论。他们把 charivari 理解为“一种以替罪羊为核心的狂欢仪式”，并据此对巴赫金把狂欢节视为纯粹革命性力量的解释提出更细致的回应（见 Bakhtin 1984）。在斯塔利布拉斯和怀特看来，尽管“集市的自由总可以在政治上被用来对抗有产者和国家”（Stallybrass and White 1986: 42），从而颠倒和／或混杂社会秩序，但狂欢节的怪诞力量同样可以通过妖魔化和制造替罪羊来维护、强化既有权力关系（ibid.: 56）。与本文关系最密切的，是狂欢仪式能量在某些意大利 charivari 中采取的反犹形式。在中世纪威尼斯和罗马的狂欢节中，犹太人被塑造成节庆的“四旬斋式”敌人，而他们宗教中禁止食用猪肉的规定，又被纳入一种“转移性的贬斥／排斥”过程：他们像狂欢节中的猪一样，成为公众憎恨和迫害的焦点。斯塔利布拉斯和怀特借助人类学关于污染禁忌的研究，把这种习俗与文化通过“不同的饮食习惯”污名化他者的常见方式联系起来：“通过把犹太人与猪混同，狂欢人群……［制造了］一种怪诞的概念混杂，把按照受害者自身饮食规范本应完全对立的两项结合起来；在狂欢期间，犹太人因此会自行退出盛大的猪肉宴席”（Stallybrass and White 1986: 53）。在这里，charivari 的狂欢动力让人想起尼采令人不安的洞见：残酷可以是权力的酒神式表达，而记忆则是一种以鲜血、酷刑和牺牲为内核的“社会承诺”。尼采提醒我们，就在不久以前，王室婚礼和公共节庆“如果没有处决［和］酷刑，仍是不可想象的”；他进一步把残酷惩罚称为“人类最古老的节庆快乐之一”，并把它视为记忆、法律义务和道德形成的基础（Miller 1990: 475）。那么，这种规范性的民间“残酷剧场”如何被移植到殖民印度的情境中？在南亚次大

陆，殖民者与被殖民者之间极端悬殊的人数比例，以及研究中常见的一种倾向——忽视宗主国中心与殖民边缘之间政治话语的断裂——在我看来，都使我们难以充分理解英印殖民社群作为一个紧密结合的文官—军人共同体，如何能够实施一种民间的主权例外，并有效地把整个印度人口变成 hominēs sacri……

English original

'beyond the law'. It is also clear that, while the rebellion represented a radical challenge to the wider sovereign sphere of colonial government, Anglo-Indians assumed that the popular sovereignty of their homes, and more fundamentally the sanctity of European women's bodies (and the domestic patriarchal right of European men over them) would be respected. In Agamben's work we find an analogue for this idea of the sovereignty of the domus or household in the powers of every roman father as patria potestas, in whose absolute power over the life of his sons wider sovereign power is 'residually and irreducibly' expressed (Agamben 1998: 88).14 We know that mid-Victorian metropolitan culture invested heavily in the idea of domesticity, to such an extent that masculinity came to be redefined in this period through familial roles in the home (Tosh 1999), and therefore, as an expression of male violence, colonial charivaris must be read as a belated defence of a residual or 'domestic' sovereignty15. In India, and especially within a masculine military peer-group like Havelock's relief-force, these principles would have been modified, but men would still have idealised 'home' as a sanctified (ideally 'companionate') space, antithetical to the harsh military-mercantile complex of the colony. The idea of a sustaining 'domestic sovereignty' was also built into Victorian public culture, and its national associations encouraged by the iconographic currency of Victoria as a sovereign and an Angel of the House; a monarch and matron (see Wiener 2004: 4). As the contemporary constitutional historian Walter Bagehot stated approvingly, 'a family on the throne is an interesting idea […] it brings down the pride of sovereignty to the level of petty life' (Bagehot [1867] 2001: 41). At the same time, however, the residual sovereignty of the Anglo-Indian home could also countermand colonialism's governmental sovereign power. After 1857, when fearing attack, loss of preferential treatment or other potential threats, Anglo-Indian communities would repeatedly enact rituals of exclusion and judgement that were directed at the Calcutta government and transgressing Anglo-Indians, as much as they were, more generally, against the colonised.

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……即置于“法律之外”的“神圣人”。还可以清楚看到，尽管起义对殖民政府更广泛的主权领域构成激进挑战，但英印殖民社群仍默认，他们家庭空间中的民间主权，更根本地说，欧洲女性身体的神圣性（以及欧洲男性对这些身体拥有的家庭父权权利），理应得到尊重。在阿甘本的著作中，我们可以找到这种“domus／家庭主权”观念的对应物：每一位罗马父亲都拥有 patria potestas（父权），他对儿子生命的绝对权力中，“残余而不可化约地”体现着更广泛的主权权力（Agamben 1998: 88）。14 我们知道，维多利亚中期的英国本土文化对“家庭性”（domesticity）投入了巨大意义，以至于这一时期的男性气质开始通过家庭中的角色重新被定义（Tosh 1999）。因此，作为男性暴力的一种表达，殖民 charivari 必须被理解为对一种残余的、或“家庭式”的主权所做的迟到防卫 15。在印度，尤其是在哈夫洛克援军这种高度男性化的军事同侪群体中，这些原则会有所变化，但男性仍然会把“家”理想化为一个神圣的、理想状态下具有伴侣关系的空间，并把它视为与殖民地严酷的军事—商业复合体相对立的存在。维系性的“家庭主权”观念也被嵌入维多利亚时代的公共文化，并通过维多利亚女王既是主权者又是“家庭天使”、既是君主又是家庭女主人的图像而获得民族性的关联（见 Wiener 2004: 4）。正如同时代宪政史家沃尔特·白芝浩赞许地写道：“王位上有一个家庭，是一个很有吸引力的观念……它把主权的骄傲降低到日常琐碎生活的层面”（Bagehot [1867] 2001: 41）。然而与此同时，英印殖民家庭的这种残余主权也可能反过来否决殖民政府的国家主权。1857 年之后，只要感到可能遭到袭击、失去优待或面临其他潜在威胁，英印殖民社群就会反复上演排斥与审判的仪式；这些仪式并不只是一般性地针对被殖民者，也会针对加尔各答政府以及违反社群规范的英印殖民者。

The Cawnpore Charivari

坎普尔的 Charivari

English original

Even though contemporary witnesses and correspondents repeatedly emphasised the unspeakable nature of the crimes at Cawnpore, the bibighar was, nevertheless, bizarrely productive as a narrative space16. On its walls, Havelock's horrified soldiers found various inscriptions that combined into a tragic textual memorial. As well as sabre-marks and blood-stains, what seemed to be hastily effaced messages and desperate personal chronicles could be made out: 'Arrived here on 4th July, Saturday … 5th Sunday up to the 14th July' (Ward 2004: 436). Sketchy accounts of imprisonment and brief diaries, written on scraps of paper, were also uncovered in the debris of the massacre 'as though the women had decided among themselves to write their histories' (ibid: 437). However, the messages and brief 'histories' were frustratingly factual and incomplete, and the bibighar quickly became a palimpsest on which soldiers co-authored the experiential script of the atrocity. In place of the messages from the captives supposedly effaced by Indian troops after the massacre, soldiers wrote their own graffiti, 'speaking for' the women they had failed to save. Witnesses transcribed the following: 'Your wives and children are here in misery' in theatrical letters […] 'at the disposal of savages' […] 'We are at the mercy of savages who have ravished young and old', 'My child my child', 'think of us', avenge us' – and in several places in broad clumsy strokes, 'Remember Cawnpore!' (the latter becoming, as we know, the rallying cry of Havelock's troops during later battles with rebel forces) (Ward 2004: 439; Robinson 1996: 128) Given the implied connection between these written messages and what actually happened in the bibighar, it is perhaps unsurprising that the three most authoritative contemporary accounts of the events at Cawnpore (two of which were written by survivors of the siege and the first Satichaura ghat massacre) should focus on the alleged inscriptions. In his poignant eye-witness account, A Personal Narrative of the Outbreak and Massacre at Cawnpore During the Sepoy Revolt of 1857 (1879) Jonah Shepherd, a Eurasian government officer who had lost his family in the massacre, describes his

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尽管同时代的见证者和通讯记者一再强调坎普尔罪行“不可言说”的性质，比比加尔却以一种怪异的方式成为极具生产力的叙事空间 16。哈夫洛克惊骇的士兵在墙上发现了多种文字刻写，它们共同构成一座悲剧性的文本纪念碑。除了军刀砍痕和血迹外，还能辨认出一些似乎被匆忙擦去的留言，以及绝望的个人纪事：“7 月 4 日，星期六，抵达此地……5 日星期日……一直到 7 月 14 日”（Ward 2004: 436）。屠杀后的残骸中还发现了写在纸片上的简略囚禁记录和短日记，“仿佛这些妇女彼此商定要写下自己的历史”（ibid.: 437）。然而，这些留言和简短的“历史”都只提供零碎事实，而且残缺不全；比比加尔因此迅速变成一块重写本，士兵们在其上共同写出了自己关于暴行的体验脚本。据说屠杀之后，印度士兵擦去了俘虏留下的信息；于是，殖民士兵用自己的涂鸦取代这些缺失的讯息，替他们未能救下的妇女“发声”。见证者抄录了以下文字：“你们的妻子和孩子正在这里受苦”——用戏剧化的大字写成……“任由野蛮人处置”……“我们任由强奸老幼的野蛮人摆布”，“我的孩子，我的孩子”，“想想我们”，“为我们复仇”——而在好几处，还能看到粗大笨拙的字迹写着：“记住坎普尔！”（如我们所知，后一口号后来成为哈夫洛克部队与起义军交战时的动员口号）（Ward 2004: 439; Robinson 1996: 128）。考虑到这些文字讯息与比比加尔实际发生之事之间被暗示出的联系，三部关于坎普尔事件最具权威性的同时代记述——其中两部由围城以及第一次萨蒂乔拉河坛屠杀的幸存者写成——都把重点放在这些据称存在的墙上刻文，也就并不令人意外。在那部极具感染力的亲历记《1857 年土兵起义期间坎普尔暴发与屠杀亲历记》（A Personal Narrative of the Outbreak and Massacre at Cawnpore During the Sepoy Revolt of 1857, 1879）中，欧亚裔政府官员乔纳·谢泼德（Jonah Shepherd）——他的家人在屠杀中遇难——描述了他拼命寻找能够说明亲人命运的痕迹。

English original

In a longer study we would be able to explore the differentiation that Agamben makes between the 'right' of the Roman male householder to punish adultery, and the rather different (and for Agamben more obviously sovereign) right of vitae necisque potestas. 'This [latter] power is absolute and is understood to be neither the sanction of a crime nor the expression of the more general power that lies within the competence of the pater insofar as he is the head of the domus' (Agamben: 1998: 87). The pieces of doggerel routinely published by the Calcutta press during the rebellion attest to this perception of threatened domesticity. The following appeared in the Bengal Hurkaru: 'If you value the blessings that shine at our hearth - / The wife's smiling welcome, the infant's sweet mirth - / while they charm us at eve, let us think upon those / who have bought with their blood our domestic repose'

(4th July 1857). For a relevant critical discussion of the generally rather voluble ‘unspeakability’ of sexual scandal and sex- crimes in Victorian society and literary culture, see Cohen (1996).

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在更长篇幅的研究中，我们本可以进一步讨论阿甘本所区分的两种权利：一是罗马男性家长惩罚通奸的“权利”，另一种则是性质不同、并且在阿甘本看来更明显具有主权性的 vitae necisque potestas，即对生杀的权力。“［后者这种］权力是绝对的，既不能被理解为对犯罪的制裁，也不是 pater［家父］作为 domus［家户］首领所拥有的更一般权力的表现”（Agamben 1998: 87）。起义期间，加尔各答报刊惯常刊登的打油诗也证明了这种“家庭生活受到威胁”的感受。《Bengal Hurkaru》刊登过如下诗句：“若你珍视照耀炉边的福祉——／妻子微笑的迎候，婴儿甜美的欢笑——／当它们在黄昏使我们心醉时，也请想想那些人／他们以鲜血换来了我们家庭的安宁”（1857 年 7 月 4 日）。关于维多利亚社会和文学文化中，性丑闻与性犯罪那种通常相当“喧闹”的“不可言说性”，可参见 Cohen (1996)的相关批判性讨论。

English original

desperate search for signs of their fate. Finding no authentic messages in the bibighar, he looked in Savada house, a building in which some European officers had been imprisoned. There he found ‘nothing that could warrant my believing that [any writing] had been traced by the hands of the poor unfortunate captives; they were mostly caricatures and scribblings […] by the European soldiers who came with general Havelock’s column’ (Shepherd 1879: 147). In his memoir, Havelock’s March on Cawnpore 1857: A Civilian’s Notes (1910), John W. Sherer, a magistrate and volunteer in Havelock’s retinue, described the bibighar compound as ‘so unspeakably horrible’ that ‘it would be quite wrong […] to increase the distressing circumstances which already existed’. Sherer assures the reader that he was ‘certainly among the first who saw […] the place’, and concedes that scattered across the floor ‘there were certainly a few odds and ends of clothing, some locks of hair […] straw hats, and so on’, but states that ‘of mutilation, in that house at least, there were no signs, nor at that time was there any writing on the walls’ (Sherer 1910: 155-6). The other well-known survivor-narrative of the siege and Satichaura ghat massacre, Mowbray Thomson’s The Story of Cawnpore (1859), also defers to Sherer’s account of the bibighar, stating that no genuine messages from the victims were found there.17 At the start of 1858 the writing on the walls of the ‘house of massacre’ was whitewashed over (see Hibbert 1980: 415 n.47), and by the time the Cawnpore massacres had become the subject of official histories like G. O. Trevelyan’s influential Cawnpore (1865), the forged pleas and pieces of graffiti in the bibighar and elsewhere were routinely (and snobbishly) dismissed as a regrettable weakness of the lower classes: ‘before the month was out, the bad habit, common to low Englishmen, of scribbling where they ought not, here displaying itself in an odious form, had covered the principal buildings of Cawnpore with vulgar and disgusting forgeries, false in date, in taste, in spelling, and in fact’ (Trevelyan 2006 [1865]: 360). Trevelyan’s disgust says as much about the discursive authority of graffiti as the uncensored ‘text’ of the colonial working class as it does about the ethics of this kind of ‘forgery’. What is evident from all these pieces of graffiti, however, is their contiguity with the ‘mournful’ atrocity rumour: as a powerful, pervasive and, above all, anonymous narrative form with the potential to incite exceptional collective action.18 The improvised writings on the wall of the bibighar anticipated the lapidary inscriptions that would mark a later stage of official commemoration. But in the days following the massacre the subaltern (and here I mean the colonial army subaltern) text, which bizarrely ventriloquises the revenge-pleas of the bibighar victims, is still part of a mobilising ‘festive’ mourning. Collecting pieces of paper left by the women of the bibighar, along with scraps of dresses and tresses of hair, the soldiers of the relief-force read them as talismans and secular phylacteries, thus extending and sharing a mourning-process that had already been started by the women themselves during the siege and subsequent captivity. The practice of gathering keepsakes, which mimicked genteel fashions of bereavement, placed the soldiers in a more sentimental relationship with the victims of the massacre, and mementoes (especially locks of hair) from the bibighar were coded very explicitly as a reminder to ‘show no mercy’ to rebel soldiers (see Robinson 1996: 128). For months after the massacre, the bibighar remained a quasi-religious or ritualised site, and in late November The Moffusilite correspondent reported from Cawnpore ‘nearly all the vast body of men who arrived with Brigadier Grant … have visited that horrible little house … and if they are excited who dares blame them?’19 Reminding ourselves of Agamben’s description of charivari as ‘a symmetrical and in some ways inverse figure’ of the official emergency ruling of the iustitium, we must note here that the mobilised mourning started by colonial relief-forces in Cawnpore had a legal counterpart in an important piece of legislation that could also be said to evoke the ‘the secret solidarity between anomie and law’ (Agamben 2005: 71). Passed by Lord Canning several weeks before the massacre at the bibighar, Act XIV of 6th June 1857 made ‘exciting mutiny or sedition in the army’ a crime punishable by death. The act, which was enforceable for a year, gave the army the power to try civilians and allowed the appointment of special commissioners who could judge and pass sentence of death for ‘crimes against

the state' and offences 'attended with great personal violence' (David 2002: 233). In effect, the act empowered army officers and designated civilians to lynch suspected mutineers. As colonial law was exchanged for martial law, the re-assertion of sovereignty through 'law-making' violence (as a

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由于在比比加尔没有发现任何真实的留言，谢泼德又到萨瓦达屋（Savada House）寻找；一些欧洲军官曾被囚禁在那里。他在那里“没有发现任何足以让我相信［任何文字］出自那些不幸俘虏之手的东西；大多只是漫画式涂画和潦草文字……是随哈夫洛克将军纵队前来的欧洲士兵留下的”（Shepherd 1879: 147）。在回忆录《哈夫洛克进军坎普尔，1857：一位平民的笔记》（Havelock's March on Cawnpore 1857: A Civilian's Notes, 1910）中，随哈夫洛克部队行动的地方行政官兼志愿者约翰·W. 谢勒（John W. Sherer）把比比加尔院落形容为“可怕到无法言说”，以至于“再去增加已经存在的悲惨情节……是完全不对的”。谢勒向读者保证，他“肯定属于最早看到……这一地点的人之一”，并承认地板上“确实散落着一些衣物零碎、几绺头发……草帽之类的东西”；但他同时强调，“至少在那所屋子里，没有任何肢解的迹象，而且当时墙上也没有任何文字”（Sherer 1910: 155-6）。另一部广为人知的围城与萨蒂乔拉河坛屠杀幸存者叙事——莫布雷·汤姆森（Mowbray Thomson）的《坎普尔的故事》（The Story of Cawnpore, 1859）——同样认可谢勒对比比加尔的说法，指出那里并没有发现受害者真正留下的留言。17 1858 年初，“屠杀之屋”墙上的文字被涂白覆盖（见 Hibbert 1980: 415 n.47）。等到坎普尔屠杀成为 G. O. 特里维廉极具影响力的《坎普尔》（Cawnpore, 1865）等官方历史的主题时，比比加尔及其他地方那些伪造的求救文字和涂鸦，已被惯常地——而且带有明显阶级偏见地——斥为下层阶级令人遗憾的恶习：“不到一个月，低等英国人那种在不该乱写的地方胡乱涂写的坏习惯，便以一种可憎形式表现出来，使坎普尔主要建筑布满粗俗、令人厌恶的伪造文字；无论日期、品味、拼写还是事实，全都是假的”（Trevelyan 2006 [1865]: 360）。特里维廉的厌恶，不仅反映他对这种“伪造”伦理的看法，也反映了他对涂鸦这一未经审查的殖民工人阶级“文本”所拥有的话语权威的警惕。然而，从这些涂鸦中可以清楚看到，它们与“哀悼式”的暴行传闻彼此相邻、相互连通：二者都是强大、无处不在、尤其是匿名的叙事形式，并且都有可能煽动例外性的集体行动。18 比比加尔墙上的即兴书写，预示了日后官方纪念阶段将出现的石刻铭文。但在屠杀后的那些日子里，这种“庶民文本”——这里我指殖民军队中的下层士兵文本——以怪异方式替比比加尔受害者说出复仇诉求，仍然属于一种具有动员性的、“节庆式”的哀悼。援军士兵收集比比加尔妇女留下的纸片、衣裙碎片和一绺绺头发，把它们当作护符和世俗的经匣来阅读，从而延伸并共享一场其实早已由这些妇女在围城和随后囚禁期间开始的哀悼过程。收集纪念物的做法模仿了上流社会的丧亲习俗，使士兵与屠杀受害者之间形成更加感伤的关系；而来自比比加尔的纪念物——尤其是头发——又被非常明确地编码为“绝不宽恕”起义军士兵的提醒（见 Robinson 1996: 128）。屠杀之后数月，比比加尔一直保持着一种准宗教或仪式化地点的性质。11 月下旬，《Mofussilite》的通讯员从坎普尔报道说，“随格兰特准将抵达的庞大部队中，几乎所有人……都去过那座可怕的小屋……如果他们因此激动，谁又敢责怪他们？”19 如果回想阿甘本把 charivari 描述为官方紧急统治 iustitium“一种对称且在某些方面相反的形态”，那么我们还必须注意：殖民援军在坎普尔启动的“动员式哀悼”，在法律上也有一个对应物——一项同样可以说体现了“失范与法律之间秘密团结”的重要立法（Agamben 2005: 71）。在比比加尔屠杀发生数周以前，坎宁勋爵于 1857 年 6 月 6 日通过第十四号法令（Act XIV），规定“煽动军队兵变或叛乱”为可判死刑的犯罪。该法有效期一年，它授权军队审判平民，并允许任命特别委员，对“危害国家的罪行”以及“伴随严重人身暴力”的犯罪进行裁判并判处死刑（David 2002: 233）。实际上，这项法令赋予军官和被指定的平民私刑处死嫌疑兵变者的权力。随着殖民法被军事法取代，主权通过“创制法律”的暴力重新得到确认。

English original

Writing from Cawnpore in mid-February 1858, the war reporter of The Times, William Howard Russell, commented on the difficulty of ascertaining the exact details of the massacre, but stated: 'One fact is clearly established; that the writing behind the door, on the walls of the slaughter-house, on which so much stress was laid in Calcutta, did not exist when Havelock entered the place, and therefore was not the work of any of the poor victims' (Russell 1957: 35). The insurgent potential of rumour at the start of the rebellion is discussed in Homi Bhabha's work on the circulation of tokens that operated as mysterious signs of the coming uprising. See Homi Bhabha 'By Bread Alone' (Bhabha 1994). The Mofussilite 27th November 1857.

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1858 年 2 月中旬，《泰晤士报》战地记者威廉·霍华德·拉塞尔从坎普尔发回报道，评论说要确定屠杀的确切细节非常困难，但他指出："有一项事实已经清楚证实：加尔各答方面如此重视的、屠宰屋门后和墙壁上的那些文字，在哈夫洛克进入该处时并不存在，因此不可能是那些可怜受害者所写"（Russell 1957: 35）。霍米·巴巴在研究起义初期的传闻时，讨论了各种象征物的流通如何作为即将到来的起义的神秘征兆，并展现出叛乱潜能。见 Homi Bhabha，"By Bread Alone"（Bhabha 1994）。《Mofussilite》，1857 年 11 月 27 日。

English original

response to atrocity narratives) ensured spectacularly brutal forms of punishment. In Benares and Allahabad the arrival of the relief forces that preceded Havelock inaugurated a period of mass reprisals. These were led by notorious figures such as Brigadier Neill, who lynched suspects on the flimsiest pretexts, and Major Renaud who was infamous for his method of 'tranquillising the country by the very simple expedient of burning all the villages in the line of march and hanging everybody with a black face falling in his way' (Chunder 1869: 335). The fact that this policy emptied the countryside of villagers who would normally have been employed as suppliers and carriers for the colonial army was noted by some officers, who worried that the colonial relief forces were delaying themselves by their own terror campaign (Russell 1957: 45). Whether or not this was the case, in Cawnpore the departure of the comparatively moderate Havelock for Lucknow left Neill to formulate what he saw as just retribution for the bibighar atrocity. 'No–one who has witnessed these scenes of murder, mutilation and massacre', Neill wrote to a friend, 'can ever listen to the word "mercy" as applied to those fiends … Severity at the first is mercy at the end. I wish to show the Natives of India that the punishment inflicted by us for such deeds will be the heaviest, the most revolting to their feelings' (Ward 2004: 454). In a bizarre reflection of the elision of tabooed foodstuffs and victimised bodies in Stallybrass and White's accounts of charivari, Neill's punishments involved breaking his prisoner's caste before they were executed by sewing them into pigskins (hybridising them) (Chakravarty 2006: 41; Dalrymple 2006: 315), and forcing tabooed meat down their throats (Hibbert 1980: 210; Ward 2004: 454-6). The appalling theme of bodily ingestion and cannibalism in Neill's reprisal punishments recurred in his so-called 'strange law', which consisted of making suspects lick clean a square foot of the bibighar's floor before execution. According to Neill, this was 'not a measure to be judged by ordinary rules' but was, he argued, 'well adapted to the present emergency' (ibid.). It was, in fact, well adapted to a deep association in European popular culture between carnival, domestic/sexual taboo and the violent community expulsion of the Other. The colonial state could not, however, allow this scandalous challenge to its own monopoly on violence to continue indefinitely, even during a period of insurgency. By the end of July 1857, Canning had become worried about the excessive violence of reprisals carried out by military commanders like Renaud and Neill, and issued a controversial 'resolution', intended as 'a series of guidelines' on how to interpret his emergency act XIV of the previous month. Canning recognised that British rule, as a supposedly ethical project, could not be maintained or justified by exceptional violence for any length of time, nor could he afford the practical costs of such measures (cf Dirks)***. Renaud's terror tactics of burning villages would, he feared, lead to 'distress and even famine' and might prompt a greater 'spirit of animosity' amongst Indian peasants, adding 'to the other difficulties with which the Government will have to contend' (cited in Chakravarty 2006: 42). But leaked to the Calcutta press, his resolution, interpreted as a conciliatory tactic, was universally condemned, and he was branded as 'Clemency Canning' by a British and colonial public still convinced that extra-judicial powers were essential (Maclagan 1962). Canning would never fully escape the stigma of 'conciliation', but in time public opinion (especially liberal metropolitan commentators) also condemned the excessive nature of the reprisals, and even some army correspondents started criticising the brutality of leaders like Neill. The spectacular violence of mobilised mourning and charivari, inscribed at the Cawnpore bibighar, would, inevitably, have to be replaced by different forms of commemorative text, signifying a reversion to violence as a state-prerogative enshrined in the rule of law.

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作为对暴行叙事的回应，这种制度安排保证了惩罚采取极其残酷、具有展示性的形式。在贝拿勒斯和阿拉哈巴德，先于哈夫洛克到达的援军开启了一段大规模报复时期。这些行动由一些臭名昭著的人物领导，例如尼尔准将

（Brigadier Neill），他往往凭最薄弱的理由就将嫌疑人私刑处死；又如雷诺少校，他因一种所谓“使乡村恢复平静”的方法而恶名远扬——“办法非常简单：把行军沿线所有村庄烧掉，并把途中遇到的所有黑脸人都吊死”（Chunder 1869: 335）。一些军官已经注意到，这一政策赶走了乡村居民，而这些人原本会为殖民军队提供补给和运输；他们担心殖民援军的恐怖行动反而拖慢了自己的推进（Russell 1957: 45）。无论这一判断是否成立，在坎普尔，相对温和的哈夫洛克前往勒克瑙后，尼尔便得以制定他所认为针对比比加尔暴行的“正当报复”。尼尔写信给一位朋友说：“任何见过这些谋杀、肢解和屠杀场面的人，都再也无法听到把‘仁慈’这个词用于那些恶魔……开始时的严厉，就是最终的仁慈。我希望让印度本地人明白，我们对这种行为施加的惩罚将是最沉重的，也是最令他们感到厌恶的”（Ward 2004: 454）。斯塔利布拉斯和怀特关于 charivari 的论述中，禁忌食物与受害者身体被混同；尼尔的惩罚则以一种怪诞方式映照了这一点。他会在囚犯被处决前破坏其种姓身份，例如把他们缝进猪皮里（使其发生“混杂”）（Chakravarty 2006: 41; Dalrymple 2006: 315），并强迫他们吞下宗教禁忌的肉类（Hibbert 1980: 210; Ward 2004: 454-6）。在尼尔的报复中，身体吞食乃至食人这一骇人主题，还反复出现在他所谓的“奇异法律”中：嫌疑人在处决以前，必须用舌头舔干净比比加尔地板上一平方英尺的区域。尼尔自己说，这“不是一种可以用普通规则来判断的措施”，但他又声称它“非常适合当前的紧急状态”（ibid.）。事实上，它确实契合了欧洲大众文化中狂欢节、家庭／性禁忌与共同体以暴力驱逐“他者”之间根深蒂固的联系。然而，即使在叛乱时期，殖民国家也不可能无限期容忍这种对自身暴力垄断权构成丑闻式挑战的做法。到 1857 年 7 月底，坎宁已经开始担忧雷诺和尼尔等军事指挥官实施的报复过于暴烈，于是发布了一项有争议的“决议”，旨在提供“一系列指导原则”，说明如何解释他上个月颁布的紧急第十四号法令。坎宁意识到，英国统治若要继续以一种据称具有道德性的事业自居，就不可能长期依靠例外性暴力来维持或证明其正当性；他也无法承受这些措施在现实层面的代价。他担心雷诺焚烧村庄的恐怖策略会造成“困苦甚至饥荒”，还可能激起印度农民更强的“敌意精神”，从而“增加政府必须应对的其他困难”（引自 Chakravarty 2006: 42）。然而，这项决议泄露给加尔各答报刊后，被解释为一种妥协安抚政策，随即遭到普遍谴责。在仍然深信法外权力必不可少的英国本土和殖民公众中，坎宁被讥称为“仁慈的坎宁”（Clemency Canning）（Maclagan 1962）。坎宁此后再也未能完全摆脱“妥协”的污名；但随着时间推移，公众舆论——尤其是本土自由主义评论者——也开始谴责报复行动的过度性，甚至部分军方通讯员也开始批评尼尔等人的残暴。刻写在坎普尔比比加尔空间中的“动员式哀悼”和 charivari 的展示性暴力，最终必然要被另一种纪念文本取代；新的文本标志着暴力重新被收归国家特权，并被嵌入“法治”之中。

Mutiny and Memory: Cawnpore and Official Commemoration

兵变与记忆：坎普尔与官方纪念

English original

The bibighar did not remain standing long after the end of the rebellion. At a grand durbar in Cawnpore in 1860, Canning unveiled plans for a memorial to ‘honour the unhappy dust he could not save’ (Keene 1896: 26); the infamous ‘house of massacre’ had already been demolished, the surrounding area cleared of trees, and the well bricked over. In its place a new, more decorous architecture of commemoration announced itself in Canning’s choice of a memorial statue to mark the well. Putting the commission out to competitive bids from sculptors, the Viceroy had, initially, been shocked by some of the plans submitted:

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起义结束后，比比加尔并没有继续存在很久。1860 年，在坎普尔举行的一次盛大达尔巴（durbar）仪式上，坎宁公布了一座纪念碑的建造计划，以“向那些他无力拯救的不幸尘骨致敬”（Keene 1896: 26）。此时，臭名昭著的“屠杀之屋”已经被拆除，周围树木被清理，井口也被砖石封住。取而代之的是一种新的、更加庄重得体的纪

念建筑语言，而它首先体现在坎宁选择用一尊纪念雕像标记那口井。总督将委托公开征集雕塑家的竞标方案，但最初收到的一些设计令他震惊。

English original

A leading contender proposed a sculpture consisting of dead children lying at the feet of an Englishwoman leaning against a cross pierced by a sword. Appalled by this graphic reminder of the 'horrors of 1857' which Canning 'wished to avoid' the viceroy chose instead a figure sketched by Lady Canning's girlhood friend, Baron Carlo Marochetti. It began as 'a sort of Britannia figure' that reminded Canning of 'a half penny' but evolved into a downcast marble angel holding palm fronds in its crossed arms (Ward 2004: 550).

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其中一个主要竞争方案表现的是：死去的儿童横卧在一名英国妇女脚下，这名妇女倚靠着一个被利剑刺穿的十字架。坎宁希望避免如此直观地提醒人们“1857 年的恐怖”，因而对这一方案极为反感；最终，总督选择了坎宁夫人少女时代的朋友卡洛·马罗凯蒂男爵（Baron Carlo Marochetti）绘制的形象。这个方案起初是“一种不列颠尼亚式人物”，让坎宁觉得像“半便士硬币上的图案”，后来则演变成一位低垂目光的大理石天使，双臂交叉，手持棕榈枝（Ward 2004: 550）。

English original

In Canning's memorial scheme, and his horrified rejection of the first proposal, we find a figural expression of the official negotiation with the atrocity-narrative and the 'mobilised mourning' it sanctioned. By memorialising the well, the act of colonial remembrance centres not on the site of the bibighar, now completely effaced, but on a less ambiguous sepulchral space alongside the former massacre-site. The surrounding edifice of the Cawnpore well memorial, designed by Henry Yule and completed in 1865, comprised an octagonal stone screen of gothic battlements that bore no relation to its Indian context, but was open to the sky, 'to maintain the sense of a well as much as possible' (Keene 1896: 26). Inside, Marochetti's marble angel stood on a pedestal marking the well, the only references to the violence of the bibighar being an inscription over the doorway that read: 'these are they which came out of great tribulation', and one around the capital which stated: 'sacred to the perpetual memory of a great company of Christian people, chiefly women and children, who near this spot were cruelly massacred [and cast] into the well below on the 15th day of July 1857' (ibid. 33). Around the monument the 'memorial garden' - a large landscaped park covering thirty acres - was laid out, and one of the veterans of the Cawnpore siege, a private Murphy of the 84th (who was soon 'ruined by drink') was employed as its caretaker. Paid for by a fine levied from Cawnpore's native inhabitants, the memorial garden was, for many years, banned to all Indians unless they possessed a special pass. Colonial visitors were expected to slow their carriages to walking pace, and no 'games or amusements' were allowed within the park (Ward 2004: 550). We have already noted that the commemorative 'memorialising' of the Mutiny after 1860 shaped itself around a number of sacred sites in which a Mutiny-mythology of heroic suffering and courage could be preserved. By the 1880s and 90s, guidebooks to India show that these sites had combined in a popular 'pilgrimage-route', that included Cawnpore, Lucknow, Jhansi and Delhi (Goswami 1996; Baucom 1999). The authors of Mutiny memoirs and histories were evidently equally aware that their works might support this growing Mutiny tourism-industry and, in the case of Cawnpore, both Shepherd's Personal Narrative, and Trevelyan's Cawnpore include detailed maps and appendix- illustrations of the town's principal tombs and memorials. Indeed, the degree to which colonial historical texts augmented Cawnpore's extensive spatial re-inscription in an ornate geography of commemorative worship is exemplified in another eccentrically hybrid text ,20 Joseph Lee's The Indian Mutiny and in Particular a Narrative of Events at Cawnpore, June and July 1857 (1893), in which visitors are directed around a circuit of Mutiny monuments that include the foundations of 'Wheeler's entrenchment', the adjoining All Souls Church, Satichaura ghat, the memorial garden and the cemetery at the European infantry barracks. However, not all the sites marking the Mutiny pilgrimage operated in the same commemorative mode - and, in fact, their relative variation helped transform them in the peripatetic journeying of the Mutiny tourist into a progressive narrative trajectory of insurgency and counter-insurgency; betrayal and requital (Chakravarty 2006: 41). The unspeakable violence of the Cawnpore massacres and the equally horrifying excesses of colonial reprisals that 'met atrocity by atrocity' (ibid.: 44) on the same ground demanded a different commemorative treatment from the equally famous siege-site of the residency compound in nearby Lucknow. In the latter, the process of commemoration involved both careful preservation and civic reconstruction: the buildings, scarred by bullets and cannon fire, were maintained intact, and their place outside historical time (in an eternal national-mythic temporality) confirmed by the Union Jack which flew constantly, without being lowered each evening, from the top of the residency building. At Lucknow, commemorative rebuilding also took the form of a defensive clearing operation, overseen by Colonel Robert Napier, in which large sections of the 'native town' were demolished, and straight

communication roads constructed (replicating the disciplinary layout of European urban renovation projects such as Haussmann's Paris) (Oldenburg 1984: 31-3).21 Elsewhere, at sites such as the Ridge and the Kashmir Gate at Delhi, large monuments and well-tended graveyards provided focal points for an equally sophisticated and varied Mutiny 'memory culture'. Recalling our introductory comments on Chakrabarty's three-fold schema of remembrance, we can see in the official memorialising of sites like Cawnpore and Lucknow, and the variation between them, the arbitrary and sometimes contentious nature of commemorative selection. As Chakrabarty notes, 'memorialising' is a historical process constantly open to dispute: 'It is the conversion of an

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在坎宁的纪念方案，以及他对第一个方案的惊恐拒绝中，我们可以看到官方如何以视觉形象的方式，与暴行叙事以及它所许可的“动员式哀悼”进行协商。通过纪念那口井，殖民记忆的中心不再是已经被彻底抹除的比比加尔原址，而转向屠杀地点旁一个意义更少含混的墓葬性空间。由亨利·尤尔（Henry Yule）设计、1865 年完工的坎普尔水井纪念碑外围建筑，是一圈八角形石质屏墙，顶部采用哥特式城垛，与印度当地语境毫无关系；但其上方完全敞开，“尽可能保持它仍是一口井的感觉”（Keene 1896: 26）。屏墙内部，马罗凯蒂的大理石天使立在标记井口的基座上。与比比加尔暴力直接相关的内容只剩两处文字：门楣上的铭文写着“这些人从大患难中出来”；柱头周围则刻着：“永远纪念一大群基督徒，其中主要是妇女和儿童；1857 年 7 月 15 日，他们在此附近遭到残酷屠杀，并［被投入］下方这口井中”（ibid.: 33）。纪念碑周围建起了占地三十英亩的大型景观公园“纪念花园”；曾参加坎普尔围城的一名第 84 团士兵墨菲（后来很快“因酗酒而毁掉了自己”）被雇为看守。花园的建造费用来自对坎普尔本地居民征收的罚款，而且在很多年里，除非持有特别通行证，所有印度人都不得进入。殖民访客乘马车经过时必须把速度降到步行速度，园内也禁止任何“游戏或娱乐”（Ward 2004: 550）。前文已经指出，1860 年以后对“兵变”的官方“纪念化”，围绕一系列神圣地点展开；在这些地方，一套关于英雄受难和勇气的“兵变神话”得以被保存。到 19 世纪 80、90 年代，印度旅行指南显示，这些地点已经组合成一条流行的“朝圣路线”，包括坎普尔、勒克瑙、占西和德里（Goswami 1996; Baucom 1999）。撰写“兵变”回忆录和历史著作的作者显然也意识到，他们的作品可能为不断扩大的“兵变旅游业”提供支持。以坎普尔为例，谢泼德的《亲历记》和特里维廉的《坎普尔》都收入了详细地图和附录插图，展示城内主要墓地和纪念碑。殖民历史文本在多大程度上加强了坎普尔空间的广泛重写，并把它组织成一套繁复的纪念崇拜地理，可以从另一部怪异的混合文本 20 中看得很清楚：约瑟夫·李（Joseph Lee）的《印度兵变，特别是 1857 年 6 月至 7 月坎普尔事件叙事》（The Indian Mutiny and in Particular a Narrative of Events at Cawnpore, June and July 1857, 1893）。书中为游客规划了一条“兵变纪念物”参观路线，包括“惠勒防御工事”的地基、相邻的诸灵教堂、萨蒂乔拉河坛、纪念花园以及欧洲步兵营墓地。不过，构成“兵变朝圣”的不同地点并不采用完全相同的纪念模式。恰恰是这些差异，使流动参观的“兵变游客”能够把各个地点连接成一条逐步推进的叙事轨迹：起义与反叛乱、背叛与报偿（Chakravarty 2006: 41）。坎普尔屠杀那种不可言说的暴力，与殖民报复在同一片土地上“以暴行回应暴行”（ibid.: 44）的同样恐怖的过度行为，要求一种不同于附近勒克瑙官邸围城遗址的纪念处理。后者同样著名，但其纪念过程同时包含谨慎保存与城市重建：被子弹和炮火留下伤痕的建筑保持原状；而官邸建筑顶端的英国国旗始终飘扬，每晚也不降下，从而确认这些建筑仿佛置身历史时间之外，进入一种永恒的民族神话时间。在勒克瑙，纪念性重建还表现为一种防御性的清理行动，由罗伯特·纳皮尔上校监督；大片“本地人城区”被拆除，并修建笔直的交通道路——这复制了奥斯曼改造巴黎等欧洲城市更新工程的纪律化布局（Oldenburg 1984: 31-3）。21 在德里山脊、克什米尔门等其他地点，大型纪念碑和维护良好的墓地同样构成复杂、多样的“兵变记忆文化”的中心。如果回到开头对查克拉巴蒂三分记忆框架的讨论，就能从坎普尔和勒克瑙等地的官方纪念化，以及它们彼此不同的处理方式中，看出纪念选择本身具有任意性，而且有时充满争议。正如查克拉巴蒂指出的，“纪念化”是一种始终向争论开放的历史过程：“它把一个……

English original

Lee was the manager of Cawnpore's Railway Hotel, and included testimonials from satisfied customers, as well as directions to all the major memorials, in his historical account of the massacre. The text's subtitle betrays some of its fraught commercial priorities, and the reader is told that Lee is 'Now Proprietor of the Railway Hotel, Cawnpore, Formerly of the 53rd, Shropshire Regiment of Foot, Who was present two hours and ten minutes after the butchers completed their sanguinary work in "the house of massacre"' (Lee 1893). Napier cleared almost two-fifths of the old city of Lucknow around the Residency site.

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李是坎普尔铁路旅馆（Railway Hotel）的经理。在这部关于屠杀的历史叙事中，他不仅给出了前往各主要纪念地的路线，还收录了满意顾客的推荐语。该书的副标题暴露了文本中颇为纠结的商业考虑，读者被告知，李"现为坎普尔铁路旅馆业主，曾服役于什罗普郡第 53 步兵团；在屠夫们于'屠杀之屋'完成血腥工作两小时十分钟后抵达现场"（Lee 1893）。纳皮尔则清理了勒克瑙旧城围绕官邸遗址的大约五分之二区域。

English original

event into a metaphor of relevance to public life that makes for a degree of competition […] as to which event should be memorialised' (Chakrabarty 2007: 1694). Taking into account the thick palimpsest of commemorative inscriptions that we have traced in the aftermath of the Cawnpore massacre, we might add, here, that particular places can become the sites of competing or contradictory commemorative processes over time as well. In the diachronic shifts and revisions of commemoration, official memorialising programmes slip again into a pattern of remembering and forgetting, and a partial repression of the 'memorised' by the 'memorialised' that is evocative of the selections and amnesias of personal grieving memory. A. H. Hallam Murray's account of his Mutiny pilgrimage-tour, The High-Road of Empire (1905), which took in the Mutiny-monuments at Cawnpore almost half a century after the rebellion, is strikingly indicative of these variations. Having visited the memorial garden and then Satichaura ghat, where he encountered a 'wild looking fanatical yogi' re-telling the story of the 1857 massacre to a crowd of Indian onlookers, Murray worriedly writes: 'We could not feel then that Marochetti's beautiful angel over the well represented the presiding genius of Cawnpore, but rather that the fiendish spirit which had animated Nana Sahib was only smouldering and fifty years of western secular education, as assimilated by the Hindus would not protect us from another outbreak' (Murray 1905: 154; Goswami 1996: 80). In this uneasy account the metaphorical function of Canning's memorialising project spectacularly fails, giving way to renewed fears of another insurgency as a latent metonymic trace of the conflagration of 1857. * A similar commemorative ambivalence, presented as a need to remember and forget simultaneously, is apparent in the work of the British Raj's greatest literary chronicler, Rudyard Kipling. In fact, it is in the narrative stock of colonial fiction that we can, I think, come closest to an appreciation of the troubled hauntological repetitions and re-inscriptions of mournful colonial commemoration. For Kipling, the memory of 1857 was a complex creative problem - contemporary critics assumed he would eventually write the historical novel of the 'Mutiny' (Gregg 1897: 231), but Kipling himself resisted these expectations. In Kim he treats the rebellion as a distant memory (filtered through the consciousness of a loyal Indian veteran),22 and in a letter to a friend Kipling stated explicitly that ' '57 is the year we don't talk about and I know I can't […] I'd try in a minute if I felt I had a call that way but I'm rather convinced I have not' (Pinney 1990, 2: 219-20; Nagai 2005: 93). Kipling's documented unwillingness to revisit 'the black year' is intriguing, because it somewhat contradicts the fact that he had already published two newspaper articles with the 1857 rebellion as their theme, in the Lahore Civil and Military Gazette, in 1887 and 1888. Interestingly, both these examples of Kipling's early journalism anticipate Kim in their meta-historical (rather than historical- fictional) treatment of the rebellion, and involve a close authorial deliberation on the process of colonial remembrance. In contrast, some of the short stories collected in Plain Tales from the Hills, written contemporaneously with the newspaper pieces mentioned above, describe a different type of recourse to 1857: not as a willed meta-historical return registered on an extradiegetic level, but as a socially-symbolic aspect of their narrative form.23 The first of Kipling's articles, titled 'In the year '57' (1887), is set the Lahore records office, where Kipling's journalist-narrator orders a file of Mutiny documents and is carelessly handed 'all that is worth keeping of the Mutiny papers' by a diffident Indian 'Babu': 'The file opened slowly and fell apart into more than a hundred and fifty letters […] stacked in any order. It was impossible to observe method in dealing with the mass. One was forced to dip as into a luckybag' [sic] (Kipling 1887). Published to coincide with the thirtieth anniversary of the rebellion, Kipling's article is actually about the problems implicit in conventional archival historiography; but also reflects, in the trope of the muddled file, his suspicion of the bureaucratic abstractions of colonial rule. In the face of this archival confusion, Kipling reconstructs a myth of Punjab-school heroism that celebrates the deeds of administrators like 'the great John Lawrence', whose autocratic style of rule and untiring charismatic leadership become the standard against which a contemporary bureaucratised imperialism struggles to measure itself. The hallmark of this almost mystical leadership is John Lawrence's handwriting, which represents an unfading inscription of his authority: 'Nothing written by

John Lawrence's hand should ever fade, and it seems quite natural, therefore, that the rugged characters should be black and fresh as ever. The ink he used must have been better than the ink powders of a degenerate today' (Kipling 1887: 4).

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……事件转化为一种与公共生活相关的隐喻，因此会产生某种竞争——究竟哪一个事件应该被纪念”（Chakrabarty 2007: 1694）。如果考虑我们在坎普尔屠杀之后追踪到的那层层叠加的纪念铭写，还可以进一步指出：随着时间推移，同一个地点本身也可能成为相互竞争甚至彼此矛盾的纪念过程的场所。在纪念的历时性变化和修订中，官方的纪念工程又会滑回“记忆与遗忘”的模式；“被纪念化的”内容会对“被铭记的”内容形成某种部分压抑，这让人联想到个人哀伤记忆中的选择与失忆。A. H. 哈勒姆·默里（A. H. Hallam Murray）的《帝国大道》（The High-Road of Empire, 1905）记录了他在起义近半个世纪后进行的“兵变朝圣之旅”，其中包括坎普尔的起义纪念物。这部作品极具代表性地显示了这种变化。他参观纪念花园后又前往萨蒂乔拉河坛，在那里遇到一位“神情狂野的狂热瑜伽士”，正在向一群印度听众重新讲述 1857 年的屠杀故事。默里不安地写道：“那时我们无法觉得马罗凯蒂置于井上的美丽天使代表着坎普尔的守护精神；相反，我们感到曾经驱使纳纳·萨希布的恶魔精神只是暂时潜伏，五十年的西式世俗教育，即便已被印度教徒吸收，也不能保护我们免遭另一次爆发”（Murray 1905: 154; Goswami 1996: 80）。在这段焦虑的记述中，坎宁纪念工程的隐喻功能彻底失效，重新让位于对又一次叛乱的恐惧；1857 年大火成为一种潜伏着的转喻性痕迹。* 在英属印度最重要的文学记录者拉迪亚德·吉卜林的作品中，也可以看到类似的纪念矛盾：同时需要记住，也需要忘记。事实上，我认为，正是在殖民小说的叙事资源中，我们最能接近那些“哀悼式殖民纪念”令人不安的幽灵式重复与重新铭写。对吉卜林而言，1857 年的记忆是一项复杂的创作难题——当时的评论家曾预期他最终会写出一部“兵变”历史小说（Gregg 1897: 231），但吉卜林本人拒绝了这种期待。在《基姆》中，他把起义处理为一种遥远的记忆（通过一位忠诚印度老兵的意识过滤）22；他还在致友人的信中明确写道：“‘57 是我们不谈的一年，我知道我不能写……如果我觉得自己受到这种召唤，我立刻就会尝试，但我相当确信自己没有”（Pinney 1990, 2: 219-20; Nagai 2005: 93）。吉卜林有据可查的不愿重返“黑暗之年”的态度很耐人寻味，因为这与一个事实略显矛盾：他早在 1887 和 1888 年，就已在拉合尔《Civil and Military Gazette》发表两篇以 1857 年起义为主题的报刊文章。有意思的是，这两篇早期新闻作品和《基姆》一样，并不是从历史小说层面处理起义，而是进行元历史式的反思，并密切思考殖民记忆如何形成。与之相反，与上述报刊文章几乎同时创作并收入《山中平话》（Plain Tales from the Hills）的部分短篇小说，则以另一种方式回到 1857 年：不是在叙事外层主动进行元历史回返，而是让 1857 成为叙事形式中一种社会—象征性的成分。23 吉卜林第一篇文章题为《在’57 年》（“In the Year ’ 57”, 1887），场景设在拉合尔档案室。记者叙述者索取一卷“兵变”文件，却被一位冷淡的印度“巴布”随意递来“所有值得保留的兵变文件”：“卷宗慢慢打开，又散成一百五十多封信……毫无次序地堆在一起。面对这一大堆材料，根本无法按方法处理，只能像把手伸进幸运袋一样随意抽取”［原文如此］（Kipling 1887）。这篇文章为起义三十周年而发表，实际上讨论的是常规档案史学本身隐含的问题；同时，“混乱卷宗”这一意象也表现出吉卜林对殖民统治官僚抽象化的怀疑。面对档案混乱，吉卜林重建了一套“旁遮普学派”式英雄主义神话，歌颂“大约翰·劳伦斯”等行政官的事迹；他们专断的统治风格和不知疲倦的魅力型领导，成为衡量当代官僚化帝国主义的尺度。这种近乎神秘的领导力，其标志就是约翰·劳伦斯的笔迹，它代表着其权威永不褪色的铭写：“约翰·劳伦斯亲手写下的东西都不应该褪色，因此，那些粗犷的字迹至今仍漆黑鲜明，也就显得十分自然。他使用的墨水一定比今天这个退化时代的墨粉好得多”（Kipling 1887: 4）。

English original

For an influential critical discussion of the representation of the 1857 rebellion in Kim, see Said (1993: 159-96). I refer here to Fredric Jameson's concept of the political unconscious in literature as a possible model for the way Kipling registers some aspects

of a ‘mournful’ historical consciousness of the 1857 rebellion in the formal and narrative structures of his short fiction (Jameson 2002).

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关于《基姆》中 1857 年起义再现方式的一项有影响力的批评讨论，见 Said (1993: 159-96)。这里借用弗雷德里克·詹姆逊关于文学“政治无意识”的概念，作为一种可能的模型，以理解吉卜林如何在其短篇小说的形式和叙事结构中记录 1857 年起义某些“哀悼式”的历史意识（Jameson 2002）。

English original

Kipling’s admiration for Thomas Carlyle is clearly evident in both the ‘editorial’ formal conceit of the article (reminiscent of Sartor Resartus) and the imperial hero-cult it subtends (Hagiioannu 2003: 21). More pertinent is the fact that towards the end of the article Kipling presents history as a transcendent awareness of colonial masculine will articulated in monumental form:

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吉卜林对托马斯·卡莱尔的敬仰，在文章“编辑式”的形式构思（让人想起《衣裳哲学》Sartor Resartus）以及由此支撑的帝国英雄崇拜中都清楚可见（Hagiioannu 2003: 21）。更重要的是，到文章结尾，吉卜林把历史呈现为一种超越性的意识：殖民男性意志以纪念碑形式被表达出来。

English original

Everything is incomplete, fragmentary, jumbled, leading nowhere. But after a while, as one turns the letters over the sense of the distance that separates the affable eloquent, impartial educated Present, from the hard-pressed, brutal and sternly practical past dies away. […] It is no longer the rush of an evil dream that we are looking at, but a length of great living frieze […] one face recurs and recurs; [that of John Lawrence] and on that face there is no outward sign of trouble, nothing but determination and sleepless vigilance. In the end peace will come back, and then, and not till then those lips will frame the question:- ‘Will you be governed by the Pen or by the Sword?’ (Kipling 1887: 4)

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“一切都是不完整的、碎片化的、杂乱无章的，似乎没有通向任何地方。但翻看这些信件一段时间后，那种把和蔼、善辩、公正、受过教育的‘现在’，与当年受压迫、粗暴而严厉务实的过去分隔开的距离感逐渐消失……我们看到的不再是噩梦般的匆促片段，而是一段宏大的、活生生的浮雕……其中有一张面孔反复出现；［约翰·劳伦斯的面孔］，那张脸上没有任何外在的忧虑迹象，只有决心和不眠的警觉。最终，和平会回来；直到那时，也只有到那时，那双嘴唇才会提出问题：‘你愿意由笔来统治，还是由剑来统治？’”（Kipling 1887: 4）

English original

The rhetorical question with which the article ends refers to a statue of John Lawrence, holding both a pen and a sword, that stood, famously, on the Lahore Mall - thus Kipling’s journalistic memorial ends by evoking a monumental counterpart, as it already has in the description of the Mutiny-archive as a ‘great living frieze’. Characteristically however, Kipling also limits the metaphorical scope of his reflexively memorialising project. The narrative remains sceptical of obsessive concerns with the bureaucratic details of governance, and its preference for heroic personality, embodying an unambiguous sovereign merging of executive and legislative power, is registered metonymically in the strength of John Lawrence’s rugged indelible ‘writ’ - as a grapheme of his sovereignty, and the ultimate letter of colonial law. Kipling’s journalistic thesis on Mutiny commemoration becomes less ambiguous in a second article, ‘The Little House at Arrah’ (1888), a travel-piece that describes a visit to the siege-site of Arrah. During the 1857 rebellion, a few Anglo-Indian civilians and army-officers and fifty Sikh policemen had barricaded themselves into a billiard room at Arrah, holding out against a much larger rebel force (see Halls 1893). As at Cawnpore, the besieged Europeans tried to produce a written account of their experience, memorialising the siege on the walls of the ‘little fort’. The chronicle was written in pencil by the magistrate of Arrah, H. C. Wake and, after the siege ended and the survivors were saved, Wake’s diary was whitewashed over, and lost as a historic text. The siege-graffiti at Arrah was not the experiential/forged trace of a massacre of Anglo-Indian women, as it was in Cawnpore, nor could its effacement be construed as an Indian attempt to cover up a ‘crime’. Thus, rather than being transformed into a ‘shrine’ of the Raj, the Arrah house was, for years, used simply as accommodation for visiting officials. However, the site was commemorated retroactively, at the turn of the century, when Lord Curzon - motivated by a renewed imperialist interest in the 1857 conflict - ordered the restoration of Wake’s graffiti-diary, and, failing to do so, marked

the place with a memorial tablet.24 As Kaori Nagai argues, ‘the wall succinctly reveals that to commemorate is [a] process of erasure and re-inscription: the original text is wiped out and then sought after on the same spot’ (Nagai 2005: 86). In visiting the eponymous siege-site of Arrah in the late 1880s, Kipling’s narrator retraces the archetypal journey of the ‘Mutiny pilgrim’. Indeed, whatever the authorial voice says about colonial history, the physical act of ‘return’ to Arrah affirms the validity of the Mutiny-commemoration, whilst also avoiding its more disturbing associations at a site that is, emphatically, not Cawnpore. The book that Kipling had won as a poetry prize in the last term at his British boarding school, the United Services College, was G. O. Trevelyan’s The Competition Wallah (1866), a chapter of which covers the heroic Arrah siege. Kipling quotes Trevelyan as an epigraph to his article, thus placing himself in a specific literary-historical lineage with the earlier work, and preparing the way for the story’s meta- historical theme, in which his narrator is shown the Arrah house by an aged Indian house-servant who had experienced the siege himself. In the article, this ‘native’ intermediary, like the diffident Babu of ‘In the Year ’57’ is an unreliable witness to (his own) history, and tells Kipling’s narrator that he cannot remember the events of the siege exactly. The loyal but amnesia-prone veteran’s sub-narrative is glossed, and his mistakes corrected, by Kipling’s colonial narrator, and in the process a more expansive statement about the process of memorialising is made:

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文章最后这个修辞性问题指向拉合尔林荫大道上那座著名的约翰·劳伦斯雕像：雕像中的他一手持笔、一手持剑。因此，吉卜林的新闻式纪念最终以唤起一座实体纪念碑收束，就像他此前已把“兵变档案”形容为“一段宏大、活生生的浮雕”。不过，吉卜林一贯也会限制自己这种反思性纪念工程的隐喻范围。叙事始终对过度沉迷于治理的官僚细节持怀疑态度，而它对英雄人格的偏爱——英雄人格体现一种行政权与立法权无歧义地合并的主权——则通过约翰·劳伦斯粗犷、不可磨灭的“书写”之力量被转喻性地呈现：他的笔迹成为主权的字形，也成为殖民法律最终的文字。吉卜林关于“兵变纪念”的新闻论旨在第二篇文章《阿拉的小屋》（“The Little House at Arrah”，1888）中变得更为清晰。这是一篇旅行文章，描述他访问阿拉围城遗址的经历。1857 年起义期间，少数英印殖民平民和军官以及五十名锡克警察曾把自己封锁在阿拉的一间台球室内，抵抗人数远多于他们的起义军（见 Halls 1893）。与坎普尔一样，被围困的欧洲人试图制作一份自身经历的文字记录，在“小堡垒”的墙上纪念这场围城。这份纪事由阿拉地方行政官 H. C. Wake 用铅笔写成；围城结束、幸存者获救后，Wake 的日记被石灰粉刷覆盖，作为历史文本就此遗失。阿拉的围城涂鸦并不像坎普尔那样，是英印女性遭屠杀的亲历／伪造痕迹；其被抹除也不能被解释成印度人试图掩盖“罪行”。因此，阿拉小屋并没有被改造成帝国统治的“圣地”，多年间只是被用作来访官员的住宿处。不过，到世纪之交，遗址又被追溯性地纪念起来。柯曾勋爵因帝国主义对 1857 年冲突重新产生兴趣，下令恢复 Wake 的涂鸦日记；在无法做到后，又用纪念牌匾标记了这个地点。24 正如永井香织所指出的：“墙面简明地揭示出，纪念本身就是一个抹除与重新铭写的过程：原始文本被擦掉，随后人们又在同一地点寻找它”（Nagai 2005: 86）。19 世纪 80 年代末访问阿拉围城遗址时，吉卜林的叙述者重走了典型的“兵变朝圣者”路线。事实上，无论作者声音对殖民历史说了什么，身体上“返回”阿拉这一行为本身就确认了“兵变纪念”的正当性；与此同时，他又选择了一个明确“不是坎普尔”的地点，从而避开纪念中更令人不安的联想。吉卜林在英国寄宿学校联合服务学院最后一学期因诗歌获奖时得到的奖品，正是 G. O. 特里维廉的《竞争文官》（The Competition Wallah, 1866），其中有一章讲述英雄化的阿拉围城。吉卜林把特里维廉的文字作为自己文章的题辞，由此把自己置于一个特定的文学—历史谱系之中，并为文章的元历史主题铺路：叙述者由一位曾亲历围城的年迈印度男仆带着参观阿拉小屋。文章中的这个“本地人”中介者，与《在’57 年》中冷淡的“巴布”一样，是自己历史的不可靠见证者；他告诉吉卜林的叙述者，自己已无法准确记得围城事件。这个忠诚却健忘的老兵所讲的次级叙事由殖民叙述者加以解释和纠正，并由此提出一个更宽泛的纪念论断。

English original

As Nagai notes, in Kipling’s description of the room it is not a memorial tablet but a full set of the ‘Codes of Law’ that adorn the mantelpiece above the hearth where Wake’s diary was inscribed (Kipling 1965-6 [1888]: 1977).

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正如 Nagai 指出的，在吉卜林对房间的描述里，装饰着 Wake 日记曾经书写过的壁炉上方的，并不是纪念牌匾，而是一整套《法典》（“Codes of Law”）（Kipling 1965-6 [1888]: 1977）。

English original

The French would have covered the building in a glass case, keeping intact each scar of musket and artillery fire. The American would have run a big fence around it and exhibited it at five cents per head – a pensioned veteran in charge. We, because we are English, we prefer to sweep it up and keep it clean and use it as an ordinary house in the civil lines, for the benefit of Her Majesty's servants; just as if nothing worth mentioning had ever taken place in that unattractive compound (Kipling 1965- 6 [1888]: 1977; Nagai 2005: 94)

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“法国人会给这座建筑罩上玻璃，完整保存每一道步枪和炮火留下的伤痕。美国人会在周围竖起一道大栅栏，以每人五美分的票价开放参观——再让一名领取养老金的老兵负责看守。我们，因为是英国人，则更愿意把它打扫干净，保持整洁，把它当成文官区里一座普通房屋，供女王陛下的公务人员使用；仿佛这个并不起眼的院落里从未发生过任何值得一提的事情。”（Kipling 1965-6 [1888]: 1977; Nagai 2005: 94）

English original

Kipling's unusual choice of Arrah (rather than the better-known Mutiny pilgrimage-sites at Cawnpore and Lucknow) as the basis for his narrative now becomes clear. This is because as an un- commemorated space it supports an index of national memorial differences in which 'the English' [sic] emerge as modestly unconcerned with history's symbolic possibilities when compared with the commemorative vulgarity of rival French and American powers. We know, of course, that both these supposedly 'un-English' modes of remembrance were part of the Raj's spectrum of commemorative practices: at Lucknow, as we have noted, the bullet-scarred Residency buildings were carefully preserved 'as if under a glass case', and at Cawnpore the memorial garden was protectively fenced and entrusted to a pensioned veteran. However, in the emerging formulation of Kipling's political aesthetic, which depends so heavily on a cult of work as unselfconscious imperial duty, the idea of public 'memorialising' commemoration becomes strangely suspect, and must be disavowed. Here, the unwillingness to talk about '57' starts to evoke, once again, the well-known silence of the traumatised or grief-stricken witness, but also anticipates a superstitious fear of imperial hubris and degeneration, articulated as a tragic 'forgetting', in later works like the elegiac poem 'Recessional'.25 If Kipling deliberately complicates and disavows traditions of monumental remembrance in his early journalism, does he also deliberately misrecognise the unruly traditions of commemoration as 'festive mourning' that were triggered at sites like Cawnpore? Is it possible to trace signs of what Chakrabarty has termed the 'unreadable' phenomenological experience of grief in the Anglo-Indian communities of Kipling's fiction? An answer, or its preliminary outline, can be found in Kipling's personal experience of an event that many historians have seen as an uncanny 'bloodless' repetition of the colonial terrors of 1857 - the Anglo-Indian agitations of 1883-4 against the notorious Ilbert Bill. Proposed during the liberal administration of Lord Ripon, the Ilbert Bill sought to secure the power of senior Indian magistrates to try court cases involving Anglo-Indians. The Anglo-Indian community vigorously opposed the Bill (arguing that unscrupulous Indian magistrates would be able to take advantage of Anglo-Indian women defendants, and thus evoking a 'mobilising' Mutiny-fear of Anglo-Indian women sexually threatened by Indian men). The so-called 'White Mutiny' included the organisation of an Anglo-Indian Women's Defence League, and a mass colonial boycott of government functions, and was so effective that Ripon was eventually forced into a 'concordat' to modify the Bill, thus effectively annulling its power (Hirschmann 1980). The Ilbert Bill controversy can be located as another of those moments, like the 1836 Black Act agitations or the aftermath of the Cawnpore massacres, in which the normative imbalance between the 'English citizen-subject' and the 'Indian subject citizen' changes (Gopal 1953: 116), and Anglo-India responds by threatening an exceptional, 'mournful' departure from the conventional basis of law. 'I can't trust myself to write calmly about the "Bill"', wrote Kipling to his uncle in June 1883, 'Old stagers say that race feeling has never run so high since the Mutiny'(Pinney 1990, 1: 35). Even so, however much he deplored the bill, Kipling's professional press connection with The Civil and Military Gazette meant that he would unwittingly support it, and become the focus of community censure himself. Like their earlier vilification of Canning's 'clemency' resolution, the Anglo-Indian newspapers rigorously opposed the Ilbert Bill and in Lahore, Kipling's paper, The Civil and Military Gazette, 'began with stern disapproval of the measure' (Kipling 1937: 50), but then started to support the government. Naïvely unaware that this (highly unpopular) support had been bought with a promise of a knighthood for the paper's proprietor, Kipling found himself unexpectedly snubbed at the Lahore club: 'As I entered the long, shabby dining-room […] everyone hissed. I was innocent enough to ask: "What's the joke? Who are they hissing?" "You," said the man at my side. "Your dam' rag has ratted over the Bill"' (ibid.:

51). For Kipling, always ready to defend what he saw as a pragmatic, unspoken law of ‘disciplined work’ and social ‘fact’ in the face of (liberal) principle,

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吉卜林不同寻常地选择阿拉而不是更著名的坎普尔或勒克瑙“兵变朝圣地”作为叙事基础，现在就变得清楚了。因为阿拉是一个没有被充分纪念的空间，它可以构成一种民族纪念差异的指标：与法国和美国这些竞争强国“庸俗”的纪念方式相比，“英国人”［原文如此］显得谦逊地不在意历史的象征可能性。当然，我们知道，这两种所谓“不英国”的记忆方式其实都存在于英属印度的纪念实践谱系之中：正如前面所说，在勒克瑙，布满弹痕的官邸建筑被小心保存，“仿佛置于玻璃罩中”；在坎普尔，纪念花园则被围栏保护，并交由一名领取养老金的老兵看守。然而，在吉卜林逐渐形成的政治美学中——这种美学高度依赖把“工作”崇拜为一种不自觉的帝国责任——公共“纪念化”本身却变得奇怪地可疑，因而必须被否认。在这里，不愿谈论“57 年”再次唤起创伤或悲痛见证者那种著名的沉默，同时也预示着一种对帝国傲慢和退化的迷信式恐惧；这种恐惧后来在挽歌式诗作《退场赞》（“Recessional”）中被表达为一种悲剧性的“遗忘”。25 如果吉卜林在早期新闻写作中有意使纪念碑式记忆传统复杂化，并与之拉开距离，那么，他是否也有意误认了在坎普尔等地被触发的、作为“节庆式哀悼”的不受规训的纪念传统？查克拉巴蒂所谓悲痛“不可阅读”的现象学经验，能否在吉卜林小说中的英印社群里留下痕迹？一个答案，或者说答案的初步轮廓，可以从吉卜林亲身经历的一次事件中找到。许多历史学家都把这一事件视为 1857 年殖民恐惧一次诡异的、“不流血”的重复——1883 至 1884 年英印社群反对臭名昭著的伊尔伯特法案（Ilbert Bill）的骚动。该法案由里彭勋爵自由主义政府提出，旨在保障高级印度法官审理涉及英印殖民者案件的权力。英印社群强烈反对法案，声称不道德的印度法官可能借机侵犯英印女性被告；这样一种说法重新唤起了“兵变”时期印度男子在性方面威胁英印女性的恐惧，并再次把这种恐惧动员起来。所谓“白人兵变”包括成立英印妇女防卫联盟，以及殖民社群大规模抵制政府活动，最终迫使里彭作出“协定式”妥协、修改法案，实际上使其效力被削弱（Hirschmann 1980）。伊尔伯特法案争议可以与 1836 年的《黑法案》骚动、坎普尔屠杀后的情形放在一起理解：在这些时刻，“英国公民—臣民”与“印度臣民—公民”之间规范性的权力失衡发生变化（Gopal 1953: 116），英印殖民社会则以一种例外的、“哀悼式”脱离常规法律基础的威胁来回应。1883 年 6 月，吉卜林写信给叔父：“我没法让自己冷静地写这个‘法案’。老资格的人都说，自从兵变以来，种族情绪从未如此强烈”（Pinney 1990, 1: 35）。尽管他本人多么厌恶该法案，吉卜林与《Civil and Military Gazette》的职业关系却使他无意中站到支持法案的一边，并因此成为社群谴责的对象。就像此前攻击坎宁的“仁慈”决议一样，英印报刊强烈反对伊尔伯特法案。在拉合尔，吉卜林所在的《Civil and Military Gazette》“起初严厉谴责这一措施”（Kipling 1937: 50），后来却开始支持政府。吉卜林天真地不知道，这种极不受欢迎的支持，是报纸业主以获得爵士头衔的承诺换来的；于是他在拉合尔俱乐部突然遭到冷落：“我走进那间又长又破旧的餐厅……所有人都发出嘘声。我还天真地问：‘什么笑话？他们在嘘谁？’旁边的人说：‘你。你那该死的破报纸在法案问题上叛变了。’”（ibid.: 51）对于吉卜林这样一个总是愿意在（自由主义）原则面前维护他所谓务实、无声的“纪律劳动”法则和社会“事实”的人来说，这必然是一次关于社群忠诚代价的毁灭性教训。

English original

Kipling’s ambivalent response to official processes of commemoration, and his displacement of a monumentalising aesthetic onto the masculine work of empire, may also draw on his Wesleyan family background and his familiarity with scriptural fable. His ambivalence towards monuments is reminiscent of the Christian tradition of memento mori, which is itself an anti-monumental or anti-decorative aesthetic incorporated into funerary architecture.

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吉卜林对官方纪念过程的矛盾态度，以及他把纪念碑式美学转移到帝国男性劳动之上的做法，也可能与他的卫斯理宗家庭背景和他对《圣经》寓言的熟悉有关。他对纪念碑的矛盾态度让人想到基督教的 memento mori（“记住你终有一死”）传统；这种传统本身就是一种被纳入丧葬建筑的反纪念碑、反装饰美学。

English original

this must have been a devastating lesson in the price of community loyalty. In fact in this account of the tense club-room response to Kipling's betrayal we can trace, faintly, the persistence of cultural narratives of extra-judicial violence in the Anglo-Indian community itself. A number of critics of Kipling's work have noted a strain of cruel slapstick that runs through his fiction (Cornell 1966: 133; Wilson 1977: 105; Paffard 1989: 37),26 and several have ascribed this keen sense of the dynamics of persecution to Kipling's personal experiences in Lorne Lodge, the Southsea 'House of Desolation' where he boarded as a child, and was bullied by the landlady and her son. Angus Wilson sees 'power preserved by the brutal, irrevocable jesting justice' as a theme that links the schoolboys of the Stalky and Co. stories to Kipling's fictions of the North-west frontier: 'where the rough and ready practical joke may put things right in the simple, harsh world of boarding schools, torture and prolonged death agonies are authority's jest in Afghanistan'(Wilson 1977: 105). However, Kipling's experience in the Lahore club points to another, colonial source for his preoccupation with festive, jesting cruelty: the violence of exceptional counter-insurgency, as a form of nascent charivari or 'rough music' that has turned inwards to police the conduct-codes of Anglo-India. These forms of justice are prosecuted through the informal community of what Moore-Gilbert calls the Anglo-Indian 'corporation' operating 'in spite of, and sometimes in connivance with the institutional, alienating brutality of the colonial government' (see Moore-Gilbert 1986: 154-155), and are most apparent in the early short stories collected as Plain Tales from the Hills, which were written and published contemporaneously with the Mutiny articles discussed earlier. I want to finish here by mentioning two of these short fictions, keeping in mind throughout the mournful dynamics of the Cawnpore charivari. In one of the short stories in Plain Tales, 'Pig', the archetypal animal of the inverted world of carnival returns in a colonial guise as the basis of an elaborate practical joke played on an Anglo-Indian official. The hapless official, named Pinecoffin, is tricked into filing numerous statistical and descriptive reports on pig populations in central India by a colleague called Nafferton, whom he has cheated in a horse deal. At last the persecuted Pinecoffin, who works in the 'Department of Castigation', realises, in a phrase that recalls the worst of Neill's reprisal punishments, that he has 'wrapped himself up in a pigskin without need … and could not well set himself to right with his Government' (Kipling 1928: 230). Pinecoffin is finally forced to apologise to Nafferton, who has managed to manipulate the bureaucratic formalities of late imperialism into a punishment of Sisyphean pointlessness, and has, in the process irrevocably blackened Pinecoffin's professional and social reputation. The energies of the colonial charivari are revived more brutally in other stories27 from Plain Tales, most notably 'A Friend's Friend', in which the collective shaming of the transgressing outsider by an isolated Anglo-Indian community forms the bullying dénouement of the tale. In this story, the narrator curses an acquaintance, 'Tranter of the Bombay side', for asking him to play host to an English tourist called Jevon, who arrives at his station, and seems at first to be well-behaved and remarkably free of the liberal pieties that Kipling habitually ascribes to 'globetrotters'. However, after securing Jevon an invitation to the 'Afghan Ball' through the 'admirable' Mrs Deemes, Kipling's narrator is horrified when the visitor embarrasses both of them, and scandalises everyone, by getting drunk, and insulting the memsahibs. The punishment that the enraged men of the station devise for Jevon 'when the ladies had gone' (Kipling 1928: 274) is revealing because it encodes, at the level of slapstick, so many of the characteristic features of political exception as a grim 'festive' delegation of sovereign power: Jevon's face is blackened with burnt cork and tinted with gelatine in suggestive 'colouring' of his racial identity, 'this was punishment, not play, remember'(ibid: 275); his hair is filled with meringue-cream, and in a scene that evokes the bestialising capability of the charivari (and its subversive taboo of cannibalism) the hapless outsider has ham-frills tied around his neck and cutlet- frills secured on his wrists. He is then rolled up in red cloth and dumped on an Indian bullock cart leaving the town. Jevon becomes here what Agamben terms the 'man without peace', the friedlos, whose life represents a 'zone of indistinction' (both excluded from and integral to the political) and whose banishment is the 'sovereign nomos that conditions every rule' (Agamben 1998: 104-11). As Kipling was painfully aware from his own experience at the Lahore club, the informal sovereignty of the Anglo-Indian community expressed itself most irrevocably in powers to ban, a prerogative frequently exercised across the 'exclusive' threshold of the club (Sinha 2001: 501). In these moments, evoked by

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事实上，在这段关于俱乐部对吉卜林“背叛”作出紧张反应的记述中，我们可以隐约追踪英印殖民社群内部法外暴力文化叙事的持续存在。多位吉卜林研究者都注意到，他的小说中贯穿着一种残酷的闹剧色彩（Cornell 1966: 133; Wilson 1977: 105; Paffard 1989: 37）；也有人把他对迫害动力的敏锐感受归因于童年寄宿于南海城 Lorne Lodge 那座“荒凉之屋”的经历——在那里，他遭到女房东及其儿子的欺凌。安格斯·威尔逊认为，“通过残酷、不可撤

回的玩笑式正义来维持权力”是一个共同主题，它把《斯托基和伙伴们》中的寄宿学校男孩，与吉卜林关于西北边疆的小说连接起来：“在寄宿学校那个简单而严酷的世界里，粗暴而现成的恶作剧也许能纠正秩序；而在阿富汗，酷刑和漫长的死亡挣扎则成为权威的玩笑”（Wilson 1977: 105）。然而，吉卜林在拉合尔俱乐部的经历还提示了另一种、殖民性的来源：例外性反叛乱暴力作为一种萌芽状态的 charivari 或“rough music”，向内转而约束英印社群的行为规范。这种“正义”由摩尔-吉尔伯特所谓英印殖民“公司式共同体”以非正式方式执行，它“无视殖民政府制度化、异化性的暴力，有时又与之合谋”（Moore-Gilbert 1986: 154-155）。这种机制在《山中平话》的早期短篇中最明显；这些作品正与前面讨论的“兵变”新闻文章同时写作并发表。最后，我想提到其中两篇短篇小说，同时始终记住坎普尔 charivari 的“哀悼式”动力。在《山中平话》中的《猪》（“Pig”）里，狂欢颠倒世界的典型动物“猪”以殖民形式回归，成为一场针对英印官员的复杂恶作剧的基础。倒霉的官员 Pinecoffin 曾在一笔马匹交易中欺骗同事 Nafferton，后者于是设计让他反复提交关于印度中部猪群的统计和描述报告。最终，受迫害的 Pinecoffin 意识到自己“毫无必要地把自己裹进了一张猪皮里……而且很难再向政府把自己纠正回来”（Kipling 1928: 230）；这句话让人想起尼尔最恶劣的报复惩罚。Pinecoffin 最后被迫向 Nafferton 道歉；Nafferton 成功把晚期帝国主义的官僚程序操纵成一种西西弗斯式、毫无意义的惩罚，并在过程中不可逆转地毁掉了 Pinecoffin 的职业与社会声誉。殖民 charivari 的能量在《山中平话》其他故事中以更残酷的方式复活 27，最突出的是《朋友的朋友》（“A Friend’s Friend”）。在这个故事中，一个孤立的英印社群集体羞辱越轨的外来者，构成全篇欺凌式的结局。叙述者诅咒一个熟人——“孟买那边的 Tranter”——因为后者要求他招待一位名叫 Jevon 的英国游客。Jevon 来到驻地后，起初举止得体，而且非常少有吉卜林惯常归给“环球旅行者”的自由主义陈词滥调。叙述者通过“令人钦佩”的 Deemes 夫人为 Jevon 弄到“阿富汗舞会”的邀请；但 Jevon 喝醉后侮辱了 memsahibs（欧洲／英印女士），令叙述者既震惊又难堪，也使整个社群哗然。女士离开后，驻地愤怒的男子为 Jevon 设计的惩罚极有启发性（Kipling 1928: 274）：在闹剧层面，它编码了政治例外作为一种阴暗“节庆式”主权委托的诸多典型特征。他们用烧焦的软木把 Jevon 的脸涂黑，再用明胶上色，暗示性地改变他的种族身份——“记住，这是惩罚，不是玩耍”（ibid.: 275）；又把蛋白霜奶油塞进他的头发。在一个唤起 charivari 兽化能力（以及其颠覆性食人禁忌）的场面中，这个倒霉的外来者脖子上被系上火腿装饰边，手腕上绑着肉排装饰边。随后，他被裹进红布，扔上一辆正驶离城镇的印度牛车。Jevon 在这里变成阿甘本所谓“无和平之人”（friedlos）：他的生命处在一种“不可区分地带”（既被排除出政治，又构成政治的一部分），而对他的放逐则是“制约一切规则的主权 nomos”（Agamben 1998: 104-11）。吉卜林从自己在拉合尔俱乐部的痛苦经验中非常清楚：英印社群的非正式主权最不可逆转地表现为“禁止／放逐”的权力；这种特权经常通过俱乐部那道“排他性”门槛来行使（Sinha 2001: 501）。

English original

H.G. Wells’s review of Stalky and Co. is particularly noteworthy: Wells saw in Stalky ‘the key to the ugliest, most retrogressive, and finally fatal idea of modern imperialism; the idea of a tacit conspiracy between the law and illegal violence’ (Paffard 1989: 46). ‘Kidnapped’, in which a young colonial administrator called Peythroppe, a ‘good young man [and] a first class officer’, is forcibly (and violently) prevented from marrying a Eurasian woman, Miss Castries, by his superiors, is another of these texts that reflect an aesthetic of charivari and persecution in Plain Tales.

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H. G. 威尔斯评论《斯托基和伙伴们》时的一段话尤其值得注意。威尔斯认为，斯托基体现了“现代帝国主义中最丑陋、最倒退、最终也是致命的观念之钥：即法律与非法暴力之间存在默契共谋的观念”（Paffard 1989: 46）。《绑架》（“Kidnapped”）也是《山中平话》中另一篇体现 charivari 与迫害美学的作品：一名年轻殖民行政官

Peythroppe——“一个好青年［并且］一等官员”——想与欧亚裔女性 Miss Castries 结婚，却被上级以强制甚至暴力方式阻止。

English original

the mournful post-Mutiny remembrance of ‘atrocity’, the local playing out of the charivari becomes an act of banishment that rehearses and commemorates the more fundamental exclusions of the colonised from full representation in colonial law. In banishment, the figure of the friedlos (which can include transgressing Anglo-Indians) is not so much the subject upon whom colonial disciplinary violence is visited, but rather the (prototypically colonised) subject from whom all legal protection can be withdrawn, and who is thus made vulnerable to violent harm by anyone (Agamben 1998: 104-5). Agamben, tracing this figure in medieval European law, describes it as a form of living death, and we can perhaps see this state symbolically figured in Kipling’s naming of Pinecoffin in ‘Pig’. An analogous condition of legal (neo-)mortality hangs over the final sentences of ‘A Friend’s Friend’. As Kipling’s narrator says, ‘the most extraordinary part of the tale is that never again did [we …] see or hear anything of Jevon […] He just went into the black darkness of the end of the night, and was swallowed up. Perhaps he died […]’(Kipling 1928: 276).

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在这些由“兵变”后对“暴行”的哀悼式记忆所唤起的时刻，地方性的 charivari 演出成为一种放逐行为；它演练并纪念了殖民法律把被殖民者排除在完整法律代表权之外这一更根本的排斥。在放逐中，friedlos 这一形象（其中也可以包括违反规范的英印殖民者）并不主要是殖民规训暴力主动施加的对象，而是一个被撤销全部法律保护、因而任何人都可以对其施加暴力伤害的主体——也就是典型的被殖民主体（Agamben 1998: 104-5）。阿甘本在中世纪欧洲法律中追踪这一形象时，把它形容为一种“活着的死亡”；我们也许可以在吉卜林《猪》中 Pinecoffin 这个名字里看到这种状态的象征性呈现。类似的法律性“新死亡”状态也笼罩着《朋友的朋友》的最后几句。正如吉卜林的叙述者所说：“这个故事最不同寻常的地方在于，从那以后我们再也没有见过或听说过 Jevon……他就这样走进夜尽之前的黑暗，被吞没了。也许他死了……”（Kipling 1928: 276）。

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